

NOTES OF STELLAR PHYSICS

version 1.0

Giacomo Pannocchia

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For those who come after

PREFACE

In a sense, you might say I'm getting quite fond of writing these kind of notes.

Not long ago, it occurred to me how cool it is when someone unexpectedly releases a very detailed and all-comprehensive version of their notes, especially when dealing with a course that has a handful of topics often interacting together in unpredictable, yet fascinating, ways.

These notes will be mainly based on *my* own notes of the lectures by Professor Scilla Degl'Innocenti during the academic year 2025-2026. However, since I take little to no pride in my messy notes, I'll be often using some of the references you can find on the course catalogue page or that have been cited during class. Either way, I'll do my best keeping track of them all in the bibliography of this humble collection.

You can report errors (whatever their nature might be) and suggestions for additions at g.pannocchia3@studenti.unipi.it or through whatever convoluted way (conventional or not) you prefer¹.

You can find all the notes I've redacted [here](#).

Without further ado, we'd better not lose much more time on a preface and get started with it.

There was Eru, the One, who in Arda is called Ilúvatar; and he made first the Ainur [...] But for a long while they sang only each alone, or but few together, while the rest hearkened; for each comprehended only that part of the mind of Ilúvatar from which he came, and in the understanding of their brethren they grew but slowly. Yet ever as they listened they came to deeper understanding, and increased in unison and harmony.

*Ainulindalë, "The music of the Ainur",
Silmarillion, J. R. R. Tolkien*

¹ I'd like, however, not to see my house stormed by homing pigeons.

CONTENTS

1	Astrophysics' Building Blocks	1
1.1	Introduction	1
1.2	Relevant quantities for radiative transfer	2
1.2.1	Blackbody radiation	4
1.2.2	Characteristic Temperatures	6
1.3	Magnitude Scales	7
1.4	Elements abundances	9
1.4.1	Universal Curve of abundances	10
1.4.2	Initial Mass Function (IMF)	12
1.4.3	Stellar Trivia	13
2	Stellar Structures	17
2.1	Stellar Equilibrium Equations	17
2.1.1	Free Fall Time	19
2.1.2	Hydrostatic Equilibrium	20
2.1.3	Temperature Gradients	22
2.1.4	Energy Production	24
2.2	Virial Theorem	26
2.2.1	Thermal Timescale Revisited	28
2.3	Qualitative Stellar Structure Relations	28
2.4	Politropic Structures	30
3	Stellar Models	33
3.1	Introduction	33
3.2	Fitting Method for Stellar Structures Integration	33
3.2.1	Starting the Integration	35
3.3	Henye Method	37
4	Nuclear Reactions	39
4.1	Introduction	39
5	Stellar Evolution	41
5.1	Introduction	41
6	Stellar Clusters	43
7	Standard Candles and Variability Mechanisms	45
7.1	Introduction	45
I	Appendix	
8	Appendix A: Radiative Transfer	49
	Bibliography	61

1

ASTROPHYSICS' BUILDING BLOCKS

1.1 INTRODUCTION

As per the name of this chapter, we're going to introduce a series of important quantities and concepts that are going to be particularly useful later on, for this first introductory part I'm going to follow [4], §1.

For expressing astrophysical measurements, it should be clear that the units that we customarily use for our everyday life wouldn't be doing a really good job. For example, most of the times, it isn't particularly convenient to have masses expressed in grams or kilograms, for the masses we'll be usually concerned with are so large that saying that a star weighs 10^{33} g isn't particularly insightful, since we don't have an everyday-life object to compare it with.

What often happens in astrophysics is that masses are usually expressed in terms of *solar masses* $M_{\odot}$, which has value

$$M_{\odot} = 1.99 \cdot 10^{33} \text{ g} \quad (1)$$

For example Vega, a bright white star in the Lyra constellation, has a mass roughly estimated to $M_{\text{Vega}} = 2.15^{+0.10}_{-0.15} M_{\odot}$. The masses of most stars lie within a relatively narrow range from $0.1 - 20 M_{\odot}$.

Stars are formed in clusters, which are predominantly composed of neutral Hydrogen. Thanks to a whole series of mechanisms interplaying in said clusters, it's often possible to assume that stars born within a given cluster are approximately coeval and have a similar chemical composition. What we can't assume, however, is them having the same masses.

To describe how the masses of stars are distributed within a cluster, it is customary to invoke a IMF, an *initial mass function*, which is essentially an empirical function that describes the mass distribution of stars for a given cloud.

Similarly, it isn't particularly convenient to express distances with meters, centimeters, kilometers or, God forbids, miles and feet. For relatively "close" objects, it is often used the *astronomical unit* (AU)

$$1 \text{ AU} = 1.50 \cdot 10^{13} \text{ cm} \quad (2)$$

which is the average distance of the Earth from the Sun. Although this is a rather useful quantity, we're not still up there. We have to kick it up a notch once more. As the Earth moves around the Sun, the "nearby" stars seem to change their position just slightly with respect to the faraway stars, which appear to be fixed in place.

This phenomenon is called *parallax*; it is not particularly different from what you experience when observing your own finger first with one eye and then with the other.

Consider the construction shown in Fig.1.

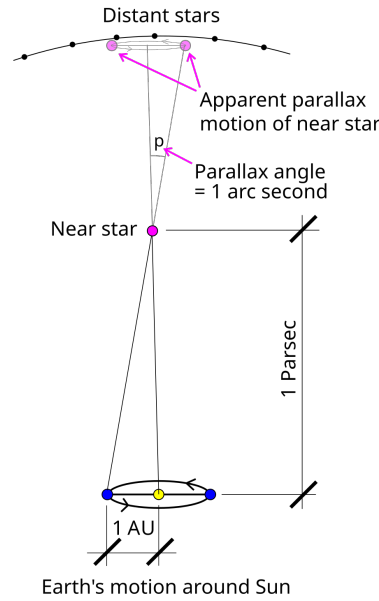


Figure 1: Defintion of parsec. Credits: Wikipedia.

Let us consider a star on the polar axis of the Earth's orbit at a distance d from the center of the orbit. The angle p in the picture is half of the angle by which this star appears to shift with the annual motion of the Earth on the distant stars' plane.

With simple geometrical considerations, if we assume Earth's orbit to be circular¹, then we can write the following relation

$$\tan(p) = \frac{1 \text{ AU}}{d} \approx p$$

if we assume d to be much larger than an astronomic unit (which for all relevant scenarios is a condition that is well satisfied).

We can then define the *parsec* (pc) as the distance the star has to be so that its geometrical parallax turns out to be 1 arcsec. Hence

$$d = \frac{3.09 \cdot 10^{18} \text{ cm}}{p [\text{arcsec}]} \implies 1 \text{ pc} = 3.09 \cdot 10^{18} \text{ cm} \quad (3)$$

Obviously, for even larger distances the standard units are the *kiloparsec* (roughly the measure of galactic sizes), the *megaparsec* (the typical measure of galactic distances) and the *gigaparsec* (the typical measure of the observable Universe).

1.2 RELEVANT QUANTITIES FOR RADIATIVE TRANSFER

Although some books often start their description of radiatively relevant quantities from the definition of *monochromatic energy* and *monochromatic intensity*, I found that it is most misleading, since, in all but a few cases, what we experimentally measure are fundamentally *fluxes*.

¹ Actually, it is not. Earth's orbital eccentricity is roughly $e = 0.017$, which is sufficiently small to let us approximate it as circular.

We shall then consider the *monochromatic flux* F_ν ($\text{erg s}^{-1} \text{Hz}^{-1} \text{cm}^{-2}$) produced by some source passing through a small area dA located somewhere in space.

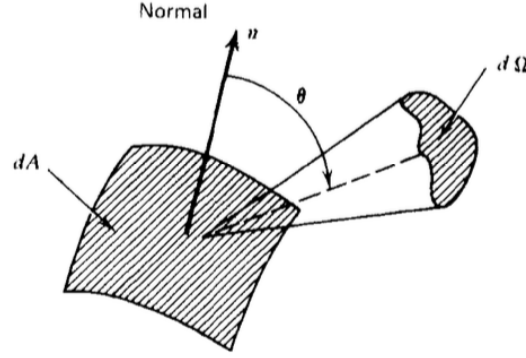


Figure 2: Schematic geometrical representation of the system.
Credits: G. Rybicki, A. Lightman [9].

If we call $\hat{k}$ the propagation direction of the flux and $\hat{n}$ the unit vector emerging from the surface dA , it's easy to get convinced that what is actually passing through the surface is something proportional to $F_\nu(\hat{k} \cdot \hat{n})$.

From the monochromatic flux we can define the *bolometric flux*, which is just the monochromatic flux integrated over all frequencies (or wavelengths)

$$F = \int_0^{+\infty} F_\nu d\nu = \int_0^{+\infty} F_\lambda d\lambda \quad (4)$$

This also tells us how to convert a flux per unit frequency to a flux per unit wavelength

$$F_\nu d\nu = F_\lambda d\lambda$$

It should be clear that, despite being experimentally sensible for us to use the flux, we're losing much information sticking with it, namely directional information.

We consider then the amount of radiation $E_\nu d\nu$ passing through the same area in time dt and solid angle $d\Omega$. Hence we can write

$$dE_\nu d\nu = I_\nu(\mathbf{r}, t, \hat{k})(\hat{k} \cdot \hat{n}) dt d\Omega dA d\nu \quad (5)$$

where the quantity $I_\nu(\mathbf{r}, t, \hat{k})$ is called the *specific monochromatic intensity*. If $I_\nu(\mathbf{r}, t, \hat{k})$ is specified for all directions at every point in a certain region of spacetime, then we'd have a complete prescription of the radiation field we intend on studying.

Capitalizing on the blatant similarities with distribution functions, we can evaluate the moments of the monochromatic intensity.

Definition 1.2.1. *Monochromatic mean intensity* J_ν

$$J_\nu = \frac{1}{4\pi} \int_{\Omega} I_\nu d\Omega = \frac{c}{4\pi} U_\nu$$

with U_ν the total energy density of radiation. Note that J_ν is essentially just an average of the monochromatic intensity over all solid angles.

Definition 1.2.2. Monochromatic flux $\vec{F}_\nu$

$$\vec{H}_\nu = \frac{1}{4\pi} \int_{\Omega} I_\nu(\hat{k}) \hat{k} d\Omega \implies \frac{1}{4\pi} F_\nu = \vec{H}_\nu \cdot \hat{n}$$

I haven't explicitly proved the last equality, but it shouldn't be hard for you to convince yourself (or prove it yourself) that it is indeed true.

Definition 1.2.3. Monochromatic radiation pressure p_ν

The monochromatic pressure is defined starting from the different directions correlations of the monochromatic intensity

$$K_\nu^{ij} = \frac{1}{4\pi} \int_{\Omega} I_\nu(\hat{k}) k^i k^j d\Omega$$

The pressure in particular is usually expressed as

$$P_\nu = \frac{1}{c} \int_{\Omega} I_\nu(\hat{k}) \cos^2 \theta d\Omega$$

where $\cos^2 \theta = (\hat{k} \cdot \hat{n})^2$.

1.2.1 Blackbody radiation

Even at an undergraduate level, we're all fairly familiar with *blackbody radiation*. The easiest way to deduce the expression for the energy density of photons in *thermal equilibrium* (STE) inside a cavity is by the means of statistical mechanics.

Remember the Bose-Einstein distribution ($\mu = 0$)

$$n = \frac{1}{\exp(h\nu/kT) - 1}$$

and the phase space density of states (per unit volume)

$$\rho(\nu) d\nu = \frac{4\pi h g \nu^3}{c^3} d\nu$$

from which deducing the expression from internal energy is straightforward. Remembering $g = 2$ is the quantum degeneracy of photons, a simple multiplication of the previous expressions yields

$$U_\nu d\nu = \frac{8\pi h}{c^3} \frac{\nu^3}{\exp(h\nu/kT) - 1} d\nu$$

Since blackbody radiation is isotropic (it depends only on the absolute temperature T), the definition of mean monochromatic intensity yields

$$B_\nu(T) = \frac{2h\nu^3}{c^2} \frac{1}{\exp(h\nu/kT) - 1} \quad (6)$$

It's important to notice that, in principle, such a fundamental result holds only in *strict thermodynamic equilibrium* (STE), but we'll soon see how to generalize this formulation for less "restrictive" environments.

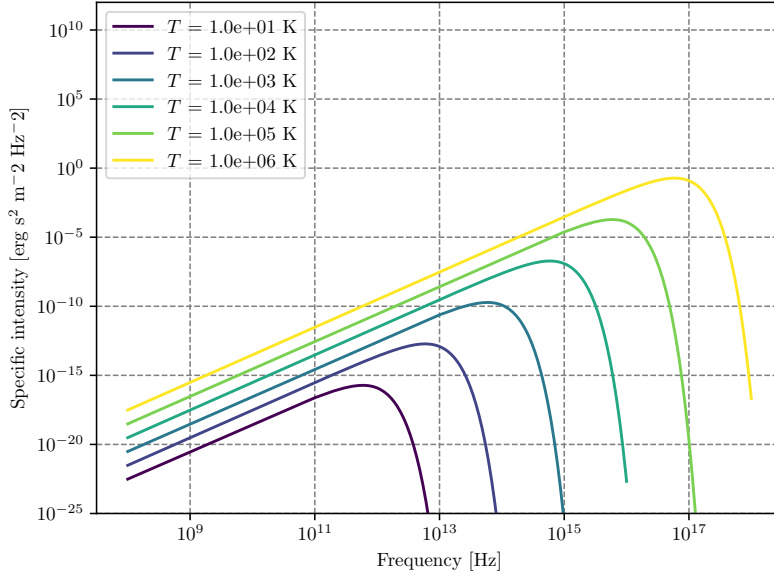


Figure 3: Blackbody frequency spectrum.

An incredible number of important results descends from (6), and it may be worthwhile to cite at least some of them, starting from Stefan-Boltzmann law. We'll use the following result without proving it

$$\int_0^{+\infty} B_\nu(T) d\nu = \frac{2h}{c^2} \frac{\pi^4}{15} \left(\frac{kT}{h} \right)^4$$

Computing the bolometric flux and the bolometric energy density by integrating over all frequencies using what we've just written down, you find the following

$$U(T) = aT^4 \quad F(T) = \sigma_{SB} T^4$$

Clearly the two constants a and σ_{SB} cannot be independent, and are actually related by the integral we've previously calculated. Using for example²

$$F(T) = \pi \int_0^{+\infty} B_\nu(T) d\nu$$

you can easily find out that the *Stefan-Boltzmann constant* is equal to

$$\sigma_{SB} = \frac{2\pi^5 k^4}{15c^2 h^3}$$

and the relation with a is simply $\sigma_{SB} = ac/4$.

The equation

$$F(T) = \frac{2\pi^5 k^4}{15c^2 h^3} T^4 \quad (7)$$

is what is usually known as the *Stefan-Boltzmann law*.

² The emergent flux from an isotropically emitting surface (such as a blackbody) is $\pi \cdot$ brightness which is none other than the specific intensity.

Let us now consider two different regimes for eq.6: $h\nu/kT \ll 1$ and $h\nu/kT \gg 1$. The first yields what is commonly known as the Rayleigh-Jeans Law which is, sadly, pretty much relevant only for radioastronomy.

Since

$$\exp\left(\frac{h\nu}{kT}\right) = 1 + \frac{h\nu}{kT} + o\left(\frac{h\nu}{kT}\right)^2$$

the blackbody radiation assumes the much simpler form of

$$B_\nu^{RJ} = \frac{2\nu^2}{c^2}kT$$

Another important results is achieved in the opposite regime, when the exponential term is rather larger than unity

$$B_\nu^W = \frac{2h\nu^3}{c^2} \exp\left(-\frac{h\nu}{kT}\right)$$

This expression is known as Wien's Law.

1.2.2 Characteristic Temperatures

Starting from the blackbody spectrum we can give various definitions of temperature, that are going to be more and less useful when dealing with stars.

Brightness Temperature

One way of characterizing brightness (specific intensity) at a certain frequency is to give the temperature of the blackbody having the same brightness at that frequency. That is, for any value I_ν we define $T_b(\nu)$ by the relation

$$I_\nu = B_\nu(T_b)$$

this way of specifying brightness has the advantage of being closely connected with the physical properties of the emitter, and has the simple unit (K).

This procedure is used especially in radio astronomy, where the Rayleigh-Jeans law is usually applicable.

$$T_b = \frac{c^2}{2\nu k} I_\nu \quad h\nu/kT \ll 1 \quad (8)$$

Note that the uniqueness of the definition of brightness temperature relies on the monotonicity property of Planck's law. Also note that, in general, the brightness temperature is a function of ν .

Color Temperature

Often a spectrum is measured to have a shape more or less of blackbody form, but not necessarily of the proper absolute value. For example, by measuring F_ν , from an unresolved source we cannot find I_ν , unless we know the distance to the source and its physical size.

By fitting the data to a blackbody curve without regard to vertical scale, a color temperature T_c , is obtained. Often the “fitting” procedure is nothing more than estimating the peak of the spectrum and applying Wien’s displacement law to find a temperature.

Effective Temperature

The effective temperature of a source T_{eff} is derived from the total amount of flux, integrated over all frequencies, radiated at the source. We obtain T_{eff} by equating the actual flux F to the flux of a blackbody at temperature T_{eff}

$$F = \int I_\nu \cos \theta \, d\nu \, d\Omega := \sigma T_{eff}^4 \quad (9)$$

1.3 MAGNITUDE SCALES

When coming down to determining the properties of a star, there are two quantities that shine a little brighter than the others: The luminosity and the flux.

The luminosity of a star is generally defined as the power emitted by a given star over time (potentially over a given wavelength) and its expression is given by the relation

$$L = -\frac{dE}{dt} \quad \text{erg} \cdot \text{s}^{-1} \quad (10)$$

As we’ll see, stars often emit isotropically in space. It goes without saying, however, that an observer at distance d from that star won’t be able to collect all the light that is emitted. What we can measure is a flux, the fraction of energy that impinges on our detector. The flux is related to the luminosity through the following relation

$$\phi = \frac{L}{4\pi r^2} \quad \text{erg} \cdot \text{s}^{-1} \cdot \text{cm}^{-2} \quad (11)$$

The flux, however, doesn’t tel us much about the characteristics of the star, differently from the luminosity. But since what we can measure are fluxes, it is then crucial that we find a way to accurately measure distances so to infer the luminosity of an object.

Since ancient times, mankind has always tried to measure the brightness of stars. The efforts of those that came before us are nowadays crystallized in a quantities that is still in use: The *magnitude*.

The concept of magnitude is strictly related to the way the human eye was believed to perceive the differences in intensities.

Hypparchus, back in ancient Greece, classified all stars into six classes according to their apparent brightness. This classes went from class I, the brightest stars, to class VI, the less bright. According to Hypparchus, the brightest and faintest stars had an apparent brightness that is in the ratio of 100.

Let us consider a star with flux F_* and some reference flux F_0 . We define the *apparent magnitude* as

$$m_* = x \log_{10} \left(\frac{F_*}{F_0} \right)$$

Calculating the difference in apparent magnitude between the brightest and faintest stars and making use of the aforementioned characteristics, we can find the correct values for the constant x and define the apparent magnitude as

$$m_* = -2.5 \log_{10} \left(\frac{F_*}{F_0} \right) \quad (12)$$

Obviously, unless a bolometer is used, you can't perform a measurement covering all wavelengths. What you're going to measure is actually a convolution of the flux emitted by the star (as a function of the wavelength) and the transmission curve of the detector you're using

$$S_{det} = \int_0^\infty d\lambda F(\lambda) T(\lambda)$$

More often than not, it is customary to measure magnitudes in given wavelengths' ranges, from which a "bolometric" magnitude can be inferred by adding a *bolometric correction* that is given from stellar atmosphere models.

Similarly, we can define the *absolute magnitude* as the magnitude a star would have if it was located 10 pc away.

Using the fact that $F \propto r^{-2}$, we find a relation for the absolute magnitude M

$$m - M = 5 \log_{10} \left(\frac{d}{10 [\text{pc}]} \right) \quad (13)$$

The difference $m - M$ is often called *distance module* (DM) and is sometimes used as an indirect way to express a distance.

For classifying stars according to their color it's often used the so-called UBV photometric system (from *Ultraviolet, Blue, Visual*), also called the Johnson system (or Johnson-Morgan system), which makes use of filters so that the mean wavelengths of response functions (at which magnitudes are measured to mean precision) are 364 nm for U, 442 nm for B, 540 nm for V.

Given this setup, we can easily calculate the magnitudes, say, in the Blue and Visible light-bands, so that the relative magnitudes are

$$m_B - m_V = -2.5 \log_{10} \left(\frac{F_B}{F_V} \right) := B - V$$

where $B - V$ is said *color index*.

When passing through interstellar dust³ the intensity of radiation gets modified. The dust that makes the ISM absorbs light in the V-UV bands to later re-emit it as InfraRed radiation or scatters the "short" wavelength, producing a net-effect that essentially "increases" the wavelength of the incoming radiation and decreases its intensity.

These two phenomena are known as *reddening* (do not confuse it with *redshift*) and *extinction*.

The absolute magnitude in the, say, blue and visible bands, will thus be modified

$$\begin{aligned} M_V &= M_V^0 + A_V \\ M_B &= M_B^0 + A_B \end{aligned}$$

³ The interstellar dust, which is usually referred to as ISM, consists in small particles of silicates, graphite, amorphous carbon, ices and organical mixtures of size $10^{-2} - 1 \mu\text{m}$

where the quantities with the "o" superscript are the un-reddened magnitudes. We can define the new color index

$$B - V = (B - V)^0 + E[B - V]$$

where $E[B - V] = A_B - A_V$ is the extinction. Within our galaxy, the ratio of reddening to the extinction is a well-known quantity

$$R = \frac{A}{E[B - V]} \approx 3.0$$

1.4 ELEMENTS ABUNDANCES

Observing the spectrum emitted by stars we may expect, a bit naively, to observe a blackbody spectrum, but that isn't quite the case. As we'll have the chance to discuss later on, the radiation field produced by stars is only approximately equal to a blackbody function in the inner regions of stars.

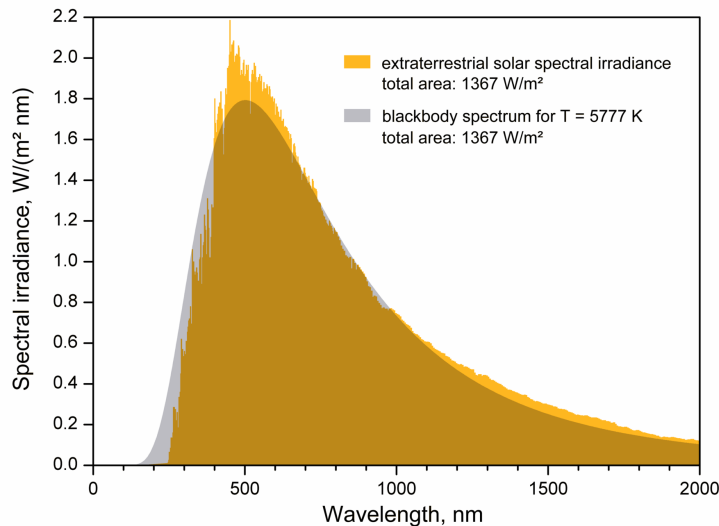


Figure 4: Deviation from blackbody behavior for the solar spectrum.
Credits: Unknown source.

Although a tad annoying for the characterization of the radiation field, this deviation from ideal behavior allows us to infer the chemical composition of stars!

Deviation from blackbody behavior in fact is usual to take the form of *emission* and *absorption* lines in the spectrum, which tend to stick out like sore thumbs. Clearly, different elements (and different species of the same element) will produce very different lines, allowing us to reconstruct the chemical composition of the photosphere, which is the region where the photons we observe are coming from.

For our purposes, we'll be interested in the *original* chemical composition of a star rather than its actual, or future, value, so that that is shed of the modifications induced by ongoing nuclear reactions.

At this point, you may be objecting: Isn't the effect of nuclear reactions relevant only in the inner regions of stars?

As often happens in Physics, the correct answer is "It depends." Can we take for granted that the chemical composition we see in the photosphere is the same as the original one?

Generally, no. As we'll see, stars in a certain range of masses and in some evolutionary stage of their life may develop convective or radiative envelopes, and the answer to our question we can find once we determine which of the two is going to win.

1.4.1 Universal Curve of abundances

A matter we're going to be most interested in discussing is the provenience of the various (chemical) elements we observe on Earth and all around the Universe and *how* they are produced. For example, we now know that the almost entirety of Hydrogen was produced during the *Primordial Nucleosynthesis* along with a bit of Helium.

Metals, on the other hand, are entirely produced by *Stellar Nucleosynthesis*. That's because in the early stages of the formation of the Universe, temperature dropped too fast below the critical threshold that allows the relevant nuclear reactions to produce efficiently Helium and metals. On top of that, light metals (Lithium, Beryllium and Boron) are generally destroyed for the sake of producing lighter elements like Helium (see Chapter 4). Fig.5 presents a comparison of chemical composition of the solar photosphere with that of CI chondrites.

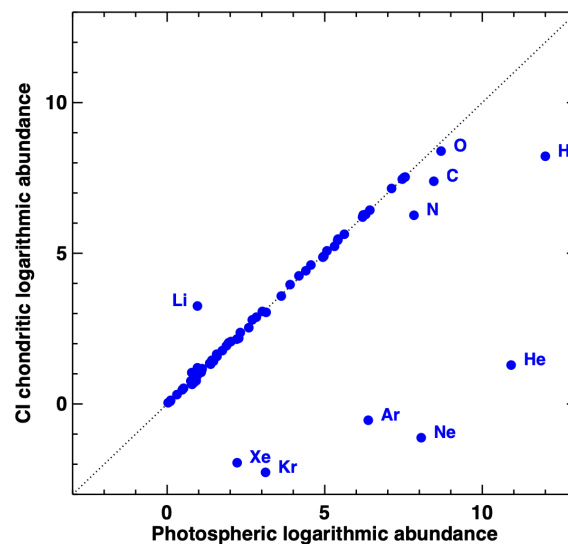


Figure 5: Comparison between the recommended abundances by [1] in present-day solar photosphere and CI chondrites. Most elements agree well, with the exception of the highly volatile elements, which are depleted in meteorites, and Li, which has been largely destroyed in the Sun due to nuclear burning. Credits: [1].

Since elements are (on average) produced essentially via the same procedures, we may expect to measure a constant ratio between the various abundances of elements. Consider for example Fig.6.

First of all: As anticipated, light metals have a relatively low abundance, which is consistent with them being burned for the sake of producing lighter elements (Hydrogen and Helium) which have above-average abundance.

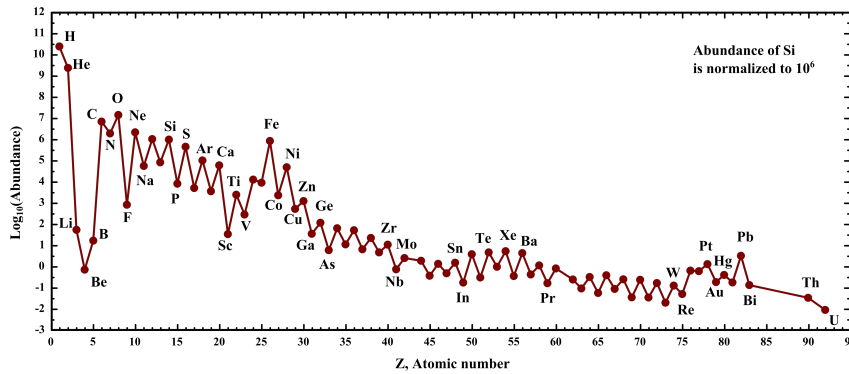


Figure 6: Universal curve of abundances, normalized on the relative abundance of Silicon. It represents the average value in the galactic disk of chemical abundances in stars. Credits: Wikipedia, but see also [1].

Similarly, the heavier elements which are produced by α -particles capture have roughly the same relative abundance, dropping off only when crossing the peak of Iron. The formation of elements with $Z > 26$ can happen only with proton/neutron capture on the nucleus, which is a fairly rare process that can occur only in the late evolutionary stages of massive stars.

As we have anticipated somewhere above, to model the evolution of a star, it's important to know the original chemical composition of the cluster the star was born from. You can think of it as "setting" the starting conditions for your system. In particular, it is of crucial importance to determine the primordial abundance of Helium.

For this purpose, blue galaxies hosting very bright, massive stars have been observed, where it's possible to study the recombination lines of Helium in metal-poor HII regions. A very recent study (Aver et al., 2026 [2]) determined up to a precision of 0.5% the primordial helium abundance

$$Y_p = 0.2458 \pm 0.0013$$

If, for whatever reason, we want to determine the abundance of non-primordial Helium, we have to consider stellar models. That is because, usually, stars presenting He-lines aren't particularly trustworthy due to sedimentation of Helium, which essentially causes the superficial abundance not to reflect the original one.

To create a stellar model for this purpose, we consider solar-mass stars, whose original metal abundance has been corrected for diffusion⁴, and an unknown abundance of Helium. Then you let the system evolve until the present-day age of the Sun and you cross-check if you've obtained the same

⁴ Don't worry, we're going to see this later on much more in detail.

luminosity $L_{\odot}$ and radius $R_{\odot}$. In particular the luminosity is going to be closely related to the Helium abundance.

Metallicity and Enrichment ratio

Usually, the total abundance of Helium is expressed in terms of the metallicity of a given star

$$Y_X = Y_p + \frac{\Delta Y}{\Delta Z} Z_* \quad (14)$$

We can also define the $[\text{Fe} | \text{H}]$ as

$$[\text{Fe} | \text{H}] = \log_{10} \left[\frac{(N_{\text{Fe}}/N_{\text{H}})_*}{(N_{\text{Fe}}/N_{\text{H}})_{\odot}} \right] = \log_{10} \left[\frac{(Z/X)_*}{(Z/X)_{\odot}} \right] \quad (15)$$

where we've defined $N_i = X_i/A_i m_{\text{H}}$. From this definition is obvious then that if $[\text{Fe} | \text{H}] = 0$, the abundance of Iron is equal to that of the Sun. Doing a slight manipulation⁵ we can also write

$$[\text{Fe} | \text{H}] \approx \log_{10} \left[\frac{(\frac{Z}{1-Y})_*}{(\frac{Z}{X})_{\odot}} \right] = \log_{10}(Z_*) - \log_{10}(1 - Y_*) - \log_{10} \left(\frac{Z}{X} \right)_{\odot} \quad (16)$$

which can be inverted to obtain an expression of the form $\log_{10}(Z_*) \sim [\text{Fe} | \text{H}]_{-1.77}^{-1.85}$, where we're assuming $Y \sim Y_{\odot} \approx 0.24$. The subscript comes from the estimate of [8] (Magg et al, 2022), while the superscript comes from the estimate of [1] (Asplund et al, 2021) of the solar metallicity.

Similarly, we can define the *alpha-enhancement* as

$$[\alpha | \text{Fe}] = \log_{10} \left[\frac{(N_{\alpha}/N_{\text{Fe}})_*}{(N_{\alpha}/N_{\text{Fe}})_{\odot}} \right] \quad (17)$$

which, on average, evaluates to $[\alpha | \text{Fe}] \sim 0.3$ for stars in galactic halos.

1.4.2 Initial Mass Function (IMF)

As we mentioned somewhere above, stars are born in clusters. During the arduous process that is stacking bit after bit of Hydrogen (along with Helium and whatever the star my found in the cluster) to build its own body, it's clear that we cannot reasonably expect all stars to be born with the same masses, just like you wouldn't expect your brother/sister to weigh just as much as you did when you were born.

What we experimentally observe is a *distribution of mass* in the cluster, influenced by every little fluctuation occurring in a cluster.

It is worth to notice, however, that the distribution we usually refer to as IMF (*Initial Mass Function*) is not the *Present Day Mass Function*, which gives the statistic of the masses of stars as seen at present day. That the two distributions must be different is evident if you consider more massive stars: These, that would appear in the IMF, *would not* appear in the PDMF, because they are most likely dead. Using stellar evolution models, however, it is possible to pass from a given IMF to the PDMF.

⁵ We're making use of $X + Y + Z = 1$.

Evaluating the mass distribution of stars right away is a burdensome task, that, for all but a few rare cases⁶, proves to be quite impossible. For that reason, it is customary to study the distribution in luminosity, or, equivalently, the distribution in given magnitude bands.

In fact, with a basic application of the chain rule, you can write

$$\frac{dN}{dM_v} = \frac{dN}{dm} \cdot \frac{dm}{dM_v} \quad (18)$$

Unable to directly measure our quantity of interest dN/dm , we can circumvent the problem by calculating the number of stars in a given luminosity range and calculating the relation between mass and luminosity, which is going to be one of the many jobs of stellar models.

Once you're finally done, you'll probably find a relation of the form

$$\frac{dN}{dm} \propto m^{-\alpha} \quad (\alpha > 0) \quad (19)$$

so less massive stars will be favored with respect to heavier stars.

For example, at present day, the IMF that is customarily into use is that found by [7]

$$M \in (0.08, 0.5) M_{\odot} \rightarrow \alpha = 1.3 \pm 0.3 \quad (20)$$

$$M > 0.5 M_{\odot} \rightarrow \alpha \approx 2.3 \quad (21)$$

Note that Kroupa's IMF is in good accord with Salpeter's IMF [10], which was one of the first proposals for a IMF.

For the moment, although we know that it shouldn't actually be the case, we're observing a *constant* IMF in galaxies, clusters and so on. Just recently, we're discovering that, luckily for us, our prediction of non-constancy is verified when you take into account regions with a high star formation rate and not too low metallicity.

1.4.3 Stellar Trivia

In this subsection I'm going to anticipate some of the subjects that are going to be the main interest of many among the following chapters.

Starting from dimensional considerations only (which, however, requires that you know the equations describing stellar structures), you can easily show that more massive stars are hotter and have a higher luminosity, hence them having a shorter lifespan. You may argue that more massive stars have more "fuel" to burn, thus "cancelling out" the effect of a higher luminosity.

Although that is technically true, it doesn't take into account the fact that (effective) temperature is positively correlated with the mass of a star. That means that more massive stars are generally hotter, which in turn pumps up the efficiency of nuclear reactions⁷. This means that more fuel gets burned to balance the collapse caused by gravitational pulls.

⁶ For example, one of the few systems we're able to "accurately" determine the mass of is that of spectroscopic binaries.

⁷ Nuclear reactions in stars can be shown to present a power-law dependency on the temperature, scaling at least as T^4 .

This phenomenon can be generally summarized under the name of *stellar thermostat*: When a star expands, its density decreases, and so its temperature; the efficiency of nuclear reactions thus decreases until it's evenly balanced by gravitational collapse. Conversely, if the gravitational pull is stronger, the star contracts and gets hotter, the efficiency of the nuclear reactions ramps up along with the luminosity, halting the collapse.

This inspires our first, important deduction: If in a cluster stars are predominantly blue, the cluster must be young! Since more massive stars have a shorter lifespan, if the cluster was older, then we wouldn't be able to observe such stars.

It's important to distinguish to kinds of clusters: *Globular clusters* are generally old clusters found in galactic halos; they have little gas, no (recent) star formation and are generally arranged spherically symmetrically around the GC. In globular clusters would be logical to expect a lower metallicity, for a lower number of generations of stars might have followed one another in that region.

On the other hand *open clusters* are now found in the galactic plane⁸; they have much more gas available and there's continuous star formation. Generally, open clusters house a smaller number of stars, therefore allowing us to see only stars still in the *main sequence* stage⁹. In open clusters, it's sensible to expect a higher metallicity (with respect to globular clusters).

As a further classification, astrophysicists are used to distinguish two (three) populations of stars, depending on their characteristics and the cluster they're found in:

- *PopI Stars*: These are typically young, blue stars, which are very bright and with a high metallicity content. They're found in open clusters.
- *PopII Stars*: These are typically old, reddish stars, which aren't particularly bright and have a low metallicity content. They're found in globular clusters.
- *PopIII Stars*: Allegedly, this population of star should be the first one to form after the Big Bang. As so, its metallicity content should be virtually zero. This would imply that they should have large masses¹⁰ and be very bright. As you might imagine, PopIII star wouldn't live for long.

Thick Disk

Along with the halo, the buldge and the *thin* disk, there's another structure in galaxies that is worth mentioning: The *thick disk*.

As the name suggests, the thick disk has a scale height that is greater than that of its thinner counterpart ($H_{\text{thick}} \sim 1 \text{ kpc}$ opposed to $H_{\text{thin}} \sim 0.1 \text{ kpc}$) but

⁸ Originally, they are likely to have formed in the halo, but their elliptic motion intersecting the GP have experienced numerous interactions with other stars and objects that have brought their trajectory to ultimately lie on the GP.

⁹ The main sequence stage is an evolutionary stage of stars during which Hydrogen is burned in the core.

¹⁰ In fact, they should be massive enough to leave behind, after their death, an intermediate mass black hole.

a shorter scale length ($l_{\text{thick}} \sim 3 - 4 \text{ kpc}$ opposed to $l_{\text{thin}} \sim 8 - 15 \text{ kpc}$). Like the halo, it is one of the more ancient structures, and presents characteristics that are hybrid between the halo and the thin disk, especially if you consider its rotational velocity and its metallicity content.

It is difficult to trace a sharp boundary between the thick disk and the halo/thin disk; usually considerations are made taking into account the kinematic of the disk.

Dwarf Galaxies

Dwarf galaxies are, unexpectedly, low-mass galaxies, in a range that can span from the typical mass of globular clusters ($10^5 M_{\odot}$) to that of more "standard" galaxies ($10^9 - 10^{11} M_{\odot}$). An example of dwarf galaxies are the Large and Small Magellanic Clouds, that are both satellites of the MW.

One way to identify dwarf galaxies is by observing the *streams* they leave in their wake as they move around their host galaxy, which are essentially groups of stars that get left behind when the smaller cloud gets gravitationally captured. The presence of streams is usually reflected into zones of (sensibly) different metallicity.

Moreover, it has been observed that the α -enhancement in dwarf galaxies is smaller than that of the MW's halo, making it quite improbable that they can make a relevant contribution.

On a concluding note, I think it's worth to mention at least the existence of Ultra-Faint Dwarf Galaxies (UFDs), which are a class of galaxies that contain from a few hundred to one hundred thousand stars, making them the faintest galaxies in the Universe.

UFDs resemble globular clusters in appearance but have very different properties. For once, UFDs contain a significant amount of dark matter and are more (spatially) extended.

UFDs are the most dark matter-dominated systems known to present day.

2 | STELLAR STRUCTURES

2.1 STELLAR EQUILIBRIUM EQUATIONS

In this chapter we're going to introduce and describe the so-called *stellar equilibrium equations*, which account for the physical mechanisms that are interplaying within stellar structures, and compare it with what real-life observations tell us.

The goal of stellar structure equations is making possible to predict instant after instant in every point of the star the value of each physical and chemical properties, so that once an initial condition is set, we're going to be virtually able to accurately determine the evolution of those properties.

On a first approximation, we can consider stars to be autogravitating mass conglomerates, for which the gravitational pull is evenly balanced by the pressure gradients (and possibly other forces) that set in within the star. Since gravity is a *central force*, we can well expect the equilibrium configuration to be that of a sphere. This greatly simplifies the problem at hand, since from a three-dimensional configuration is reduced to a one-dimensional configuration by means of symmetry.

The approximation of spherical symmetry allows us to formally decompose the star in a series of *shells* of infinitesimal width dr , so that the physical properties of the star are approximately constant within said shell. The quantities we'll be interested in considering are the pressure $p(r)$, the density $\rho(r)$, the temperature $T(r)$, the various relative abundances $X_i(r)$, the mass $M(r)$ (that is considered to be the mass contained in the sphere of radius r) and the luminosity $L(r)$ (the energy per unit time entering the shell at distance r from the center of the star).

Given this notation, the mass found inside radius $r + dr$ should be $M(r) + dM$, where dM can be identified with the mass of the infinitesimal spherical shell. Said $\rho(r)$ the density, then the mass of this shell is

$$dM = 4\pi r^2 \rho dr$$

which yields our first stellar structure equation

$$\boxed{\frac{dM}{dr} = 4\pi r^2 \rho(r)} \quad (22)$$

Note that (22) is essentially a restating of the continuity equation of mass.

Let's stop for a moment to consider how sensible are the two approximations we're implementing in our description, that are the request of spherical symmetry and that only pressure gradients are balancing the gravitational pull. The former is generally met by the vast majority of stars, while for the latter it might be necessary to use some more care, especially when deal-

ing with (highly) rotating stars, forcing us to add centrifugal forces to the picture¹.

Generally, if the centrifugal acceleration at the surface is too high with respect to the surface gravitational acceleration, the necessity of modifying our equations to keep track of centrifugal forces may arise.

For this purpose, we define the *critical angular velocity* Ω_c so that

$$\Omega_c^2 \sim \frac{GM_*}{R_*^3} \implies v_c \sim \sqrt{\frac{GM_*}{R_*}} \quad (23)$$

Note that depending on the mass and the radius of the star we're considering, critical velocities might get as high as $v_c \sim 300 - 600$ km/s; for comparison, the equatorial velocity of the Sun is $v_{\odot}^{\text{eq}} \sim 2$ km/s.

To result in non-negligible effects, it is sufficient that the angular velocity gets as high as $\Omega_{\text{sup}} \gtrsim 0.5\Omega_c$; if, instead, $\Omega_{\text{sup}} \gtrsim 0.7\Omega_c$ you start observing deformations in the structure of the star, but this are fairly rare. As you may easily guess, these are problems that concern with the more massive stars, getting more and more relevant as the mass of the star gets bigger.

About 20% of the stars with mass in the range $10M_{\odot} \lesssim M \lesssim 19M_{\odot}$ (so typically stars of spectral class B or O) have velocities of order

$$150 < v_{\sin i} < 300 - 400 \text{ km/s}$$

Note that through Doppler effect, we're able to measure the velocity of objects along the line of sight, but in principle, the rotation axis of the object we're observing may be tilted of an angle i with respect to the observer, hence the notation/factor $\sin i$.

Increasing the mass, we find that about 30% of the stars with mass in the range $20M_{\odot} \lesssim M \lesssim 40M_{\odot}$ have roughly the rotational velocities of the order of the ones we've written above.

To "detect" the presence and relevance of rotation it is customary to perform a spectroscopic analysis of the star. In fact, it is clear that the presence of rotation issues the arising of convection motion within the star, which in turn implies a "mixing" of the star's contents.

In principle, if we observe main sequence stars, the chemical composition of the surface should be roughly equal to the starting composition², for temperature isn't high enough to start the nuclear processing on the surface. But, in presence of strong mixing mechanisms, we may observe an excess of Helium and Nitrogen that are brought to the surface from the inner regions of the star (where nuclear reactions are at least partially active).

¹ Note that in the presence of rotation, the equilibrium configuration is no longer spherically symmetric, since rather than the gravitational potential, we have now to consider a baroclinic potential (gravitational+centrifugal).

² If we neglect the effects of *sedimentation*, that is. The characteristic times are however too short for sedimentation to occur, so it should be probably safe neglecting it.

The Effect of Magnetic Fields (anticipation)

In principle, even particularly strong magnetic fields may influence the surface composition and structure of the star. This, however, requires

$$\beta = \frac{p_{\text{gas}}}{p_{\text{mag}}} \sim 1 \text{ with } \beta = \frac{8\pi p}{B^2}$$

that in turn would mean having magnetic fields as high as $B \approx 3000 - 5000$ Gauss. In general they are not relevant, but there exist very rare cases such that of *magnetic stars* of class A_p or B_p , where the subscript "p" is to indicate particular lines in the spectrum of such stars. For comparison

$$\langle B \rangle_{\odot} \sim 0.5 - 4 \text{ Gauss vs } \langle B \rangle_{MS} \sim 1 - 30 \text{ kGauss}$$

Magnetic fields that strong are assured to influence the external layers of such stars, inducing mixings that lead to a modification of the surface abundances.

Another class of magnetic stars is that of *magnetic white dwarves* that, although very rare, can reach magnetic fields of order $10^6 - 10^9$ Gauss. Similarly, in *magnetars* (magnetic neutron stars), magnetic fields can reach intensities of $10^{14} - 10^{15}$ Gauss.

Note that in principle we're able to detect the presence of strong magnetic fields by studying the surface oscillation of the star, performing what's called *asteroseismology*.

2.1.1 Free Fall Time

Our initial claim was that for the majority of their life, stars are in *hydrostatic equilibrium*, in a configuration where pressure gradients are evenly matching the collapse forces. But can we be so sure that a star is, as a matter of fact, in equilibrium?

We know, for example, that the Sun has been stable on timescales of at least a couple hundred years. On top of that, looking at the Milky way we can find billions of stars with characteristics similar to those of the Sun but in different stages of their life, so that we might have an idea of the whole life cycle of our dearest yellow dwarf.

From those observations, we learn that the Sun must have been stable for times of the order of millions of years. Of course, to make sure it is indeed in hydrostatic equilibrium, we should compare with the *dynamical timescales* the observation timescales over which we can safely claim that its characteristics (e.g., the luminosity and the radius) haven't changed.

Let's consider a spherically symmetric star with constant density. In presence of gravity alone, we can write

$$\ddot{r} = -\frac{GM}{r^2}$$

which can be immediately integrated to yield

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{1}{2}\dot{r}^2 &= \frac{GM}{r} + \text{const.} \\ &= \frac{GM}{r} - \frac{GM}{R} \end{aligned}$$

where we have set the initial conditions for $t = 0$: $r = R$ and $\dot{r} = 0$.

The free-fall timescale can be thus obtained by committing a mathematical atrocity, but I (and, for extension, you too) don't care³

$$\begin{aligned}\tau_{ff} &= \int_0^{t_{ff}} dt = \int_R^0 \frac{1}{\dot{r}} dr \\ &= \int_0^R \frac{dr}{\sqrt{2GM \left(\frac{1}{r} - \frac{1}{R} \right)}} = \frac{\pi}{2\sqrt{2}} \sqrt{\frac{R^3}{GM}}\end{aligned}$$

thus, if we use $R^3/GM = 3/4\pi G\rho$

$$\tau_{ff} = \sqrt{\frac{3\pi}{32G\rho}} \approx 1.63 \text{ Myr} \cdot \left(\frac{10^3 \text{ cm}^{-3}}{\mu n} \right)^{1/2} \quad (24)$$

For the Sun, the free-fall timescale amounts to roughly $\tau_{ff} \sim 30 \text{ min} - 1 \text{ h}$ depending on the calculation that has been used. So we can safely claim that the Sun is definitely not collapsing. What if, instead, it is exploding?⁴

To see that we can calculate the explosion time, sound time, or dynamical time as

$$\tau_{\text{sound}} = \frac{R}{c_s} \approx 0.5 \text{ Myr} \left(\frac{R}{0.1 \text{ pc}} \right) \left(\frac{0.2 \text{ km s}^{-1}}{c_s} \right) \quad (25)$$

If $\tau_{ff} > \tau_{\text{sound}}$ the system returns to a stable equilibrium as the pressure forces can overcome gravity. Conversely, for $\tau_{ff} < \tau_{\text{sound}}$ gravitational collapse takes place.

2.1.2 Hydrostatic Equilibrium

In the last section we showed that is fair for us to assume that stars are in *hydrostatic equilibrium* for most of their lives. We now turn to write an equation (the second of four) that will allow to characterize our star.

Consider a star in which the only relevant forces acting on a spherical shell between r and $r + dr$ and transverse area dA are the gravitational pull and the pressure forces (both due to the gas and photons). It's not difficult to show that the balance condition for the mass of the small element is

$$-dp dA - \frac{GM_r}{r^2} \rho dr dA = 0$$

from which

$$\boxed{\frac{dP}{dr} = -\frac{GM_r}{r^2}} \quad (26)$$

A quick look at (22) and (26) will convince you that we have more free variables (functions of the radial coordinate) than equations. This is one of the many cases in which the *closure problem* pops out. To solve it we're gonna need to introduce an equation of state (EoS)

$$\boxed{p = p(\rho, T, X, Y, X_i)} \quad (27)$$

³ It is actually less atrocious than I'm making it sound like.

⁴ Read: expanding outwards.

where the various quantities have their obvious meaning. A particularly simple configuration (that we'll have the pleasure to look somewhere in the following) is the one where we're allowed to take a *polytropic equation of state*

$$p = K\rho^\gamma \quad (28)$$

with K some constant and γ some power that depends on the particular gas and its degenerate state.

Let us now take a look at another particularly simple EoS, that is the equation of state of perfect (non degenerate) gas

$$p = nkT = \frac{\rho(r)}{\mu(r)m_H}kT(r) \quad (29)$$

with $\mu(r)$ the *mean molecular weight*, which clearly depends on the elements present in the star and their ionization state, which can (hopefully) inferred from considering Saha's equation (61). In general it's not easy to determine the exact form of $\mu(r)$ so it is customary to consider the easy scenario of a *completely ionized star*⁵

If we consider X the relative abundance of Hydrogen, Y the relative abundance of Helium and X_i the relative abundance of the metal with i so that $A > 4$ ⁶. If we consider the number of ions and electrons that complete ionization generates:

- Hydrogen: #ions X/m_H , #electrons X/m_H ;
- Helium: #ions $Y/4m_H$, #electrons $2Y/4m_H$;
- Metal i -th: #ions $X_i/A_i m_H$, #electrons $Z_i X_i/A_i m_H$

so that the total number of particles (per unit volume) is just

$$n = \left[2X + \frac{3Y}{4} + \sum_{i=4}^N \left(\frac{X_i}{A_i} + \frac{Z_i X_i}{A_i} \right) \right] \frac{\rho}{m_H} \quad (30)$$

If we consider the following approximation for (30)

$$\frac{X_i}{A_i} \ll 1 \quad \frac{Z_i}{A_i} \sim \frac{1}{2}$$

we find

$$\mu^{-1} \approx 2X + \frac{3Y}{4} + \frac{1}{2} \sum_{i=4}^N X_i = 2X + \frac{3Y}{4} + \frac{Z}{2} \quad (31)$$

where we've introduced the *metallicity* Z .

We can also consider the molecular weight restricted to ions only

$$\mu_i^{-1} = 2X + \frac{3Y}{4} + \sum_{i=4}^N \frac{X_i}{A_i}$$

⁵ People tend to say that a star is completely ionized when its temperature is at least $T > 10^6 \text{K}$, although that's a completely arbitrary lower limit. For instance, heavier elements like Iron, which have electrons to spare, are completely ionized at much higher temperatures.

⁶ Sorry ${}^4_3\text{He}$, you're too less abundant to be considered. But your time will come soon.

and consider an average charge for the mixture of elements $\bar{Z}$, so that $n_e = \bar{Z}n_i \approx \bar{Z}\rho/\mu_i m_H$. From this we can define the mean molecular weight of electrons as

$$\frac{\mu_i}{\bar{Z}} \rightarrow n_e = \frac{\rho}{\mu_e m_H}$$

If we plug this all back in the EoS for the perfect gas

$$p_{\text{gas}} = nkT = (n_e + n_i)kT = \frac{\rho kT}{m_h} \left(\frac{1}{\mu_i} + \frac{1}{\mu_e} \right)$$

we conclude

$$\frac{1}{\mu} = \frac{1}{\mu_i} + \frac{1}{\mu_e} \quad (32)$$

2.1.3 Temperature Gradients

As you probably know, in the inner regions of stars holds the so called *Local Thermodynamic Equilibrium* (for friends, LTE): In these regions there is, as the name suggests, punctual and *local* thermodynamic equilibrium between matter, which will be then well described by a Maxwell-Boltzmann distribution, and radiation, which can be described by (6).

This fact should also suggest you that, since we're able to observe temperature gradients within stars, it is not possible for stars to be in *strict thermodynamic equilibrium* (STE) and thus emit like perfect blackbodies with fixed temperature.

Let us try to give an order of magnitude estimate of the temperature gradient within, say, the Sun

$$\left\langle \frac{dT}{dr} \right\rangle = \frac{T_c - T_s}{R_\odot} \approx 10^{-4} \text{ K cm}^{-1}$$

which means that over the average mean free path of a photon in the inner regions of stars ($\lambda \sim 0.1 - 1 \text{ cm}$), the difference in temperature will be

$$\Delta T = \left\langle \frac{dT}{dr} \right\rangle \cdot \lambda \approx 10^{-5} - 10^{-4} \text{ K}$$

which is very small. But to actually check if the assumption of LTE is valid (if at all sensible) we shall consider the variation in internal energy of the photons. We know that in thermal equilibrium $U = aT^4$, so

$$\frac{dU}{U} = 4 \frac{dT}{T} \sim 10^{-12} - 10^{-11}$$

which means the deviation from isotropic (blackbody) behavior is negligibly small over the mean free path of photons, therefore allowing us to assume the LTE configuration.

We know, either through direct observation or because you've read the upcoming section about radiative transfer, that wherever is a temperature gradient there is also a radiative flux (along with a convective motion and electronic conduction)!

On a first approximation we may write

$$\left. \frac{dT(r)}{dr} \right|_{\text{rad}} \propto F(r)\bar{\kappa}$$

where F is the flux we've defined in (4) and $\bar{\kappa}$ is some average *opacity*⁷ that sums up the various interaction channels between matter and radiation. Note that in general it is frequency dependent⁸.

In the equation we've written above we're assuming that the transport of energy is carried out by radiation alone, which is essentially the temperature gradient that we'd observe if all the flux was transported by radiation.

Taking a closer look to the micro-physics involved in absorption phenomena we learn that is possible to link the opacity to the mean free path of electrons

$$\lambda_\sigma = (n\langle\sigma\rangle)^{-1} = (\rho\bar{\kappa})^{-1}$$

If, on the other hand, there were another channel available for transporting energy on top of radiation, we may be writing

$$F(r) = \frac{L(r)}{4\pi r^2} = F_{\text{rad}} + F_{\text{conv}}$$

where we've assumed the presence of, say, relevant convective motions within the star. It should go without saying that the temperature gradient will no longer be the gradient induced by radiative transport, but will rather be an *ambient gradient*, which we might express as

$$\left. \frac{dT(r)}{dr} \right|_{\text{amb}} \propto \bar{\kappa} F_{\text{rad}}$$

Clearly, since now radiation is transporting only a part of the total flux

$$\left| \frac{dT(r)}{dr} \right|_{\text{amb}} < \left| \frac{dT(r)}{dr} \right|_{\text{rad}}$$

If we define with ϕ the flux of photons per unit time, and approximate the number of interactions in an infinitesimal distance dr as dr/λ , with λ the mean free path, we can calculate the transferred momentum

$$\delta p = \phi \frac{dr}{\lambda} \frac{h\nu}{c} = \frac{F(r)}{\lambda c} dr$$

But the variation in (linear) momentum is equal to the variation of pressure $\delta p = \delta P_{\text{rad}}$

$$\frac{dP_{\text{rad}}}{dr} = \frac{F(r)}{\lambda c}$$

If we recall that $P_{\text{rad}} = U/3 = aT^4/3$ and correct the sign of the expression (to address the mismatch of signs between the flux and temperature gradient), we finally yield

$$F(r) = -\lambda c a \frac{4}{3} T^3 \frac{dT}{dr}$$

Recalling that $\lambda = (\rho\bar{\kappa})^{-1}$ and that $\sigma_B = ac/4$ we can write our third stellar structure equation

$$\boxed{F(r) = -\frac{16}{3} \frac{\sigma_B T^3}{\rho \bar{\kappa}} \frac{dT}{dr}} \quad (33)$$

⁷ Opacity is measured in $\text{cm}^2 \text{g}^{-1}$.

⁸ For a more rigorous definition see either the next chapter or [9].

It is often useful to flip the equation

$$\left. \frac{dT(r)}{dr} \right|_{\text{rad}} = -\frac{3\bar{\kappa}\rho}{4ac} \frac{1}{T^3} \frac{L(r)}{4\pi r^2}$$

so that in general, if $F_{\text{rad}} \neq F_{\text{tot}}$, we can make a slight manipulation and write

$$\left. \frac{dT(r)}{dr} \right|_{\text{amb}} = -\frac{3\bar{\kappa}\rho}{4ac} \frac{1}{T^3} F_{\text{rad}}$$

If you want to see a slight more rigorous derivation of (33), you may check the last part of the "Radiative Transfer" section.

2.1.4 Energy Production

Let us consider what happens if the stellar atmosphere was not constantly replenished with energy from the inner layers. How long would it take for the star to deplete completely the energy stored in the atmosphere.

The average density of the outer layers of the atmosphere is $\rho^{\text{ext}\odot} \sim 10^{-7} \text{ g cm}^{-3}$. We can thus give an estimate of the mean free path $\lambda_j \sim (\rho\bar{\kappa})^{-1} \sim 100 - 300 \text{ km}$. We've made the (usually decent) approximation of opacity being dominated by photoelectric effect on H^- ions, $\bar{\kappa} \approx 0.3 \text{ cm}^2 \text{ g}^{-1}$. Note that in these conditions, the width of the atmosphere is of the same order of the mean free path of photons.

We know the solar flux $F_{\odot} \sim 6 \cdot 10^{10} \text{ erg cm}^{-2} \text{ s}^{-1}$, as well as its temperature and pressure $T_{\text{eff}} \sim 6000 \text{ K}$, $p \approx 10^5 \text{ dyne cm}^{-2}$. The average number of particles is $n \sim 10^{17} \text{ cm}^{-3}$, which can be integrated over the vertical direction to find an average number of photons per unit surface.

The mean energy of photons can be expressed as $E_p = 3kT/2 \sim 10^{-12} \text{ erg}$. The energy per unit surface is thus $E_s \approx 10^{12} \text{ erg cm}^{-2}$. Finally, we find that the energy stored in the atmosphere would be depleted in roughly

$$\tau = \frac{E_s}{F} \approx 15 \text{ s}$$

In such a short time, we would be able to discern immediately the changes in color in the atmosphere. Similarly, through the random-walk approximation, we may find an estimate of the time it takes photons to escape the inner regions of stars.

Random Walks

Consider a photon emitted in an infinite, homogeneous scattering region. It travels a displacement $\vec{r}_1$ before being scattered, then travels in a new direction over a displacement $\vec{r}_2$ before being scattered, and so on. After N free paths, the total displacement will look like

$$\vec{R} = \sum_{i=1}^N \vec{r}_i$$

The average total displacement will be identically null. Therefore, we must evaluate the mean square of the total displacement, which, in the assumption of independent and isotropic scattering, must be expressed as

$$l_*^2 = \langle \vec{R}^2 \rangle = \sum_{i=1}^N \langle \vec{r}_i^2 \rangle = \sum_{i=1}^N l_i^2$$

The quantity l_* is the root-mean-square net displacement of the photon, while l^2 denotes the mean square of the free path of a photon, which within a factor of order unity, it's simply the mean free path of a photon.

Since the mean square displacements of each scattering iteration have no reason to be different, we'll just write

$$l_* = \sqrt{N}l$$

Said L the linear dimension of the object photons are trying to "escape" from, the number of scatterings events required to actually escape from regions of large optical depth is roughly determined by setting $l_* \approx L$. Then $N \sim L^2/l^2$.

This way, we can find the number of interactions needed to travel through a solar radius $R_\odot$ if the average displacement is a mean free path λ

$$\Delta x = \sqrt{z}\lambda \implies z \approx \left(\frac{R_\odot}{\lambda}\right)^2 = 1.96 \cdot 10^{22}$$

If an interaction takes, on average, $\tau = 10^{-8}$ s, the time needed to perform all those interactions is $\Delta t \approx 10$ Myr. This usually goes by the name of *thermal timescale*.

If we consider the average density of a star and a mean opacity independent of temperature and density, we can write

$$\bar{\rho} = \frac{M}{\frac{4\pi}{3}R^3}$$

but for stars with mass in the range $M_\odot \lesssim M \lesssim 10M_\odot$, mass scales linearly with the radius $M \propto R$. So

$$\lambda = (\bar{\kappa}\rho)^{-1} \propto R^2 \rightarrow \sqrt{z} \propto R^{-1} \implies \Delta t_{th} \propto R^{-2}$$

This is telling us that increasing the mass of a star (and thus the radius) has the surprising consequence of a (very) reduced lifespan.

We now present the last equation of stellar structure, that relates the luminosity gradient to the rate of production of energy

$$\boxed{\frac{dL(r)}{dr} = 4\pi r^2 \rho(r) \epsilon(r)} \quad (34)$$

where $\epsilon(r)$ is the "energy production rate", that is usually decomposed in three contributions

$$\epsilon(r) = \epsilon_g(r) + \epsilon_N(r) - \epsilon_\nu(r)$$

The easier to address is the term $-\epsilon_\nu$, which expresses the energy lost to neutrinos that are produced where there's no nuclear reactions. These neutrinos, produced via various channels, are often called *thermal neutrinos*. The main channels of production are summed up below:

$$e^- + (Z, A) \text{ or } e^- \rightarrow e^- + (Z, A) \text{ or } e^- + \nu_e + \bar{\nu}_e \quad \text{Bremsstrahlung}$$

$$\gamma + e^- \rightarrow e^- + \nu_e + \bar{\nu}_e \quad \text{Photoproduction}$$

$$\gamma \rightarrow e^- + e^+ \rightarrow +\nu_e + \bar{\nu}_e \quad \text{Pair annihilation}$$

$$\gamma_{\text{plasmon}} \rightarrow \nu_x + \bar{\nu}_x \quad \text{Neutrino oscillations}$$

$$(Z, A) + e^- \rightarrow (Z-1, A) + \nu_e \quad \text{Neutralization}$$

Please note that the subject of neutrino oscillations is rather technical and I know nothing of it to make this surely intriguing subject justice. The only thing I know is that the collective oscillations in a plasma, *plasmons*⁹, may decay into one of the three leptonic pairs of neutrinos.

The next one to address is the contribution given by *gravitational energy* ϵ_g . Consider the 1st principle of thermodynamics

$$dQ = dU + pdV \quad dQ_m = dU_m + pd\left(\frac{1}{\rho}\right) \quad (35)$$

where the subscript m in the second equation means "per unit mass". We may then define $\epsilon_g = -dQ_m/dt$. Invoking entropy, this becomes

$$\epsilon_g = -\frac{dQ_m}{dt} = -T \frac{dS_m}{dt} = -T \left[\partial_p S)_T \frac{dp}{dt} + \partial_T S_m)_p \frac{dT}{dt} \right]$$

which, once we introduce the *specific heat capacity at constant pressure* $c_p = T \partial_T S_m)_p$ and the heat exchanged during an isothermal transformation $E_T = -T \partial_p S)_T$, we may finally write

$$\epsilon_g = -\frac{dQ_m}{dt} = E_T \dot{p} - c_p \dot{T} \quad (36)$$

Since time derivatives are involved, it should be clear that we are in the need of having two different models to describe the structure of a star in different times. To do so, it is necessary to solve *mesh by mesh* the stellar structure equations. It is then of crucial importance knowing how abundances change within a given mesh. Those who work with this stuff usually linearize the function describing the evolution of the abundance of the i -th element as such

$$X_{i,k}^{\text{new}} = X_{i,k}^{\text{old}} + \frac{dX_i}{dt} \Delta t \quad (37)$$

where the subscript k refers to a given mesh. The time interval Δt is often chosen so that in each mesh the physical variables and/or the abundances do not vary more than a predetermined value.

2.2 VIRIAL THEOREM

For stellar structures in hydrostatic equilibrium, for which only pressure and gravitational forces are present, the following *virial theorem* holds

$$2\langle K \rangle_{\text{trasl}} + \langle \Omega \rangle = \frac{1}{2} \ddot{I} \approx 0 \quad (38)$$

This strikingly simple equation allows us to find some enlightening relations. Let us then consider a monoatomic perfect gas for which the equipartition theorem grants us $\langle K \rangle = 3kT/2 = E_{th}$. The virial theorem thus implies

$$E_{th} = -\frac{\Omega}{2} > 0 \implies E_{tot} = \frac{\Omega}{2}$$

⁹ Not to be confused with the omonymous biscuits.

Note that under the assumption of spherical symmetry, the gravitational energy can be found evaluating the following integral

$$\Omega = - \int_0^{R_*} \frac{GM_r}{r} 4\pi\rho r^2 dr < 0$$

From the former expression, we can calculate the luminosity

$$L = -\frac{dE_{tot}}{dt} = -\frac{1}{2} \frac{d\Omega}{dt} = \frac{dE_{th}}{dt} > 0$$

From this we're learning that from the gravitational contraction, half the energy is dissipated through radiation, the other half is used to "fuel" the thermal content of the star (i.e., the star gets hotter).

What if we relax the condition of the gas being monoatomic? The virial theorem (38) still holds, but in general we can't say $\langle K \rangle = E_{th}$. The traslational (average) kinetic energy is still $\langle K \rangle = 3kT/2$, but now $E_{th} = lkT/2$, where l is the number of degrees of freedom of the single gas element. It isn't particularly convenient to work with the degrees of freedom, so we're going to convert it to a more thermodynamically acceptable quantity, the adiabatic index γ . It is possible to show that

$$\gamma = \frac{C_p}{C_V} = 1 + \frac{2}{l}$$

This way we can cast the virial theorem in an alternative form

$$3(\gamma - 1)E_{th} + \Omega \approx 0$$

The total energy can be calculated with a direct substitution

$$E_{tot} = E_{th} + \Omega = \frac{3\gamma - 4}{3(\gamma - 1)}\Omega$$

from which

$$\begin{aligned} \Delta E_{tot} &= \frac{3\gamma - 4}{3(\gamma - 1)} \Delta\Omega \\ \Delta E_{th} &= -\frac{\Delta\Omega}{3(\gamma - 1)} \end{aligned}$$

Since $\Delta\Omega$ is necessarily smaller than 0, we thus obtain a stability criterion for the star: A star can be stable if $\gamma > 4/3$. If such condition is not met, all the energy released by gravitational collapse is converted in thermal energy, thus resulting in instabilities.

We can also extend the virial theorem to different equations of state if we allow for the translational kinetic energy to be written as $\langle K \rangle = \xi E_{th}$. Clearly, we have to assume that the coefficient ξ is constant over the whole stellar structure. Repeating the same calculations as before (*mutatis mutandis*, that is), virial theorem yields

$$E_{tot} = \frac{\xi - 1}{\xi} \Omega$$

and the stability condition therefore becomes $\xi > 1$.

2.2.1 Thermal Timescale Revisited

A few pages ago we made use of the random walk approximation to find the time that it takes on average to a photon to scatter its way out of the inner region of a star. We called that time *thermal timescale*. It is the aim of this section to show that it is indeed possible to find an equivalent formulation for that timescale starting from the virial theorem.

Let us recall (38)

$$2\langle K \rangle + \langle \Omega \rangle \approx 0$$

For the sake of simplicity, we're going to assume a monoatomic gas, so that $\langle K \rangle = E_{th}$. We can assume the following expression for the gravitational potential

$$\Omega = -q \frac{GM^2}{R}$$

with q that depends on the specific density profile that is given. For a homogeneous star, for example, $q = 3/5$. We showed that the luminosity of the star will be such that

$$L = -\frac{1}{2}\dot{\Omega} = -\frac{q}{2} \frac{GM^2}{R^2} \dot{R}$$

Separating variables and integrating, we find

$$\tau_{KH} = \frac{q}{2} \frac{GM^2}{RL} \quad (39)$$

which is called *Kelvin-Helmoltz timescale*. In short, it represents the time during which the stellar structure is able to sustain itself radiating away the energy generated from the gravitational shrinking.

Note that we're implicitly assuming that the luminosity doesn't change while the star collapses, which is in general a very bad approximation.

Under the approximation of homogeneous density $q = 3/5$, and the Kelvin-Helmoltz timescale is

$$\tau_{KH} \approx 10 \text{ Myr} \left(\frac{M}{M_{\odot}} \right)^2 \left(\frac{R_{\odot}}{R} \right) \left(\frac{L_{\odot}}{L} \right)$$

which is much greater than the other dynamical times, but still not quite as large as it should be to match the estimated lifespan of the Sun (that it's also connected to the fairly long half-life of some radionuclides we observe here on Earth).

2.3 QUALITATIVE STELLAR STRUCTURE RELATIONS

Now that we have the virial theorem at our disposal, we might think of looking for very approximated expressions that can give us an idea of how physical properties in a star are interconnected. All quantities will be interpreted as *averaged* quantities.

Let us start with density and temperature. If we know M and R , then

$$\Omega = -q \frac{GM^2}{R}$$

with q a constant given by the profile density. We can now use the virial theorem and invert the relation between mass, density and radius

$$E_{th} \sim \frac{3kT}{2} \frac{M}{\mu m_H} \quad \rho = \frac{M}{\frac{4\pi}{3} R^3}$$

finding

$$\boxed{T \propto M^{2/3} \rho^{1/3}} \quad (40)$$

This means that two stars with different masses must have different densities to achieve the same temperature! This will then reflect onto smaller stars having the higher densities.

Upon a first approximation, the luminosity L does not depend on the energy production rate ϵ . If we butcher the equation of hydrostatic equilibrium a plug in the proportionalities of the density

$$p_C = \frac{M^2}{R^4}$$

where p_C is the central pressure. We can make the further assumption of a perfect gas and negligible radiation pressure, so that

$$\boxed{T_C \propto \frac{p_C \mu}{\rho} \propto \mu \frac{M}{R}} \quad (41)$$

If we make the assumption of exclusively radiative transport, we find that

$$\frac{dT}{dr} \propto -\mu M R^{-2} \rightarrow L \propto -\frac{T^3}{\bar{\kappa} \rho} \frac{dT}{dr} R^2$$

We then make the (very wrong, both conceptually and experimentally) approximation of constant opacity, thus finding

$$\boxed{L \propto \mu^4 M^3} \quad (42)$$

Finally, we can find a relation between luminosity and density

$$\frac{dL}{dr} = 4\pi r^2 \rho \epsilon \rightarrow \frac{L}{R^3} \propto \rho \epsilon \rightarrow \rho \propto \frac{L}{R^3} \frac{1}{\epsilon}$$

but we showed that $R \propto M/T$, so

$$\rho \propto \frac{T^3}{\epsilon}$$

without some kind of prescription for the energy production rate, this is as far as we can get. Fortunately for us, for main sequence stars that still burn Hydrogen, it is given (as we'll see) the following expression

$$\epsilon \propto \rho^m T^n$$

with $m = 1$ both in the case of energy production through the ppI chain and the CN-NO chain. The two of them, however, have really different dependencies on the temperature: The ppI scales as $\epsilon \propto T^4$, while the CN-NO as $\epsilon \propto T^{15}$. Plugging in the aforementioned expression, we finally find

$$\boxed{\rho^{m+1} \propto T^{3-n}} \quad (43)$$

2.4 POLITROPIC STRUCTURES

A simple way of solving stellar structure equations is by killing off one of the variables, namely temperature. This isn't always possible, but there exist some special cases in which pressure can be assumed to be dependent only on density. This is the case of the so-called *politropic structures*. Politropic structures are described by the following equation of state

$$p(\rho) = K\rho(r)^{1+\frac{1}{n}} = K\rho(r)^\Gamma \quad (44)$$

where n is the *index of the politropic*. Consider the equation for hydrostatic equilibrium (26) and twist it so that

$$\frac{dp}{dr} \frac{r^2}{\rho} = -GM_r$$

This we can derive with respect to the radial coordinate, finding

$$\frac{d}{dr} \left(\frac{dp}{dr} \frac{r^2}{\rho} \right) = -G \frac{dM_r}{dr} = -4\pi G \rho r^2$$

where we made use of (22). Dividing by r^2 we finally obtain

$$\frac{1}{r^2} \frac{d}{dr} \left(\frac{dp}{dr} \frac{r^2}{\rho} \right) = -4\pi G \rho \quad (45)$$

which is still the same equation, but with a *crispier* form that will make a little easier the discussion we'll do in the next few paragraphs.

Lane-Emden equation

Assume for example a density profile of the form

$$\rho(r) = \rho_c \phi^n(r)$$

with ϕ some adimensional density profile with the following characteristics: $\phi(0) = 1$ and $\partial_r \phi|_{r=0} = 0$. Substituting in the politropic equation (44) we find that the pressure is simply

$$p(r) = K\rho_c^{1+\frac{1}{n}} \phi^{n+1} = p_c \phi^{n+1}$$

In terms of an adimensional radius $r = \lambda \xi$, with λ constant depending only on n

$$\lambda = \left[\frac{K\rho_c^{1/n-1}(n+1)}{4\pi G} \right]^{1/2}$$

eq.45 takes a much simpler and elegant form

$$\boxed{\frac{1}{\xi^2} \partial_\xi (\xi^2 \partial_\xi \phi) = -\phi^n} \quad (46)$$

which is the general *Lane-Emden equation*. Solutions for this equation have been calculated numerically in Fig.7.

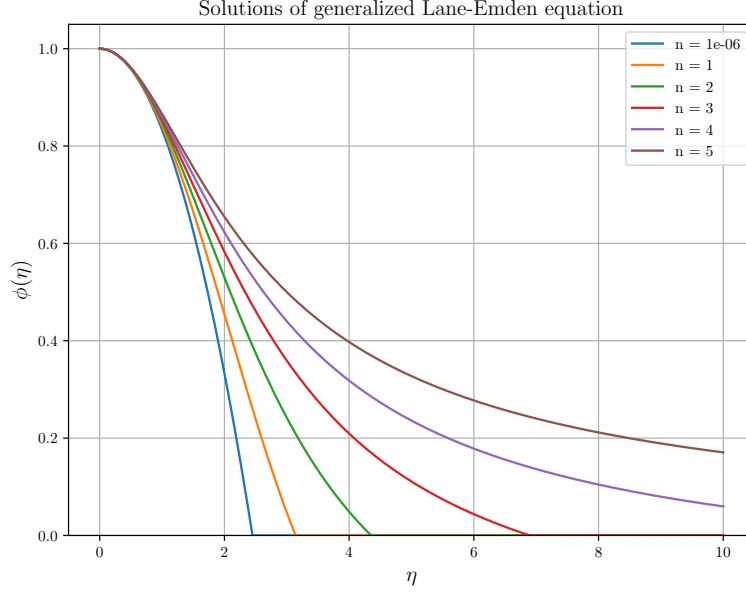


Figure 7: Numerical solutions to the Lane-Emden equation.

Note that solving (46) gives us two things: The profile density ϕ and the adimensional radius ξ_0 for which $\phi(\xi_0) = 0$, which is essentially the radius of the star.

Since we know quite a few things already, we may ask ourselves if it is possible to calculate the central density of the star as well. Assuming that we know from some other observations the total mass of the star, we can indeed calculate ρ_c . In fact, we can simply integrate the equation of continuity (22)

$$M = \int_0^R 4\pi r^2 \rho \, dr = 4\pi \lambda^3 \rho_c \int_0^{\xi_0} \xi^2 \phi^n \, d\xi$$

The value of that integral is actually fixed by the original equation itself to $-\xi_0^2 \partial_\xi \phi|_{\xi_0}$. So we can promptly invert the equation above and find the central density of the star. It goes without saying that once we've completely specified the density profile we'll have automatically determined the pressure profile as well by means of mere substitution.

3

STELLAR MODELS

3.1 INTRODUCTION

In the last chapter we've managed to write down the four (five, if you consider the EoS) equations through which we're able to describe stellar structures. For the sake of completeness (and not to make you flip your pages back and forth), I'll write them all down below

$$\begin{aligned}\frac{dM_r}{dr} &= 4\pi r^2 \rho(r) \\ \frac{dP_r}{dr} &= -\frac{GM_r}{r^2} \\ F(r) &= -\frac{16}{3} \frac{\sigma_B T^3}{\rho \bar{\kappa}} \frac{dT}{dr} \\ \frac{dL(r)}{dr} &= 4\pi r^2 \rho(r) \epsilon(r) \\ p &= p(\rho, T, X, Y, X_i)\end{aligned}$$

Those who are used to working with stellar structure equations are often solving them (numerically, of course) using different independent variables in the stead of the radial distance r .

For example, in the inner regions of stars, where the mass isn't saturated, we may use the mass M_r and express all the derivatives consequently. When the mass is saturated we have to switch to another variable, for example the pressure p (the associated region is the *sub-atmosphere*). As we move to the outskirts of the star, all relevant quantities will be saturated to their boundary value, and we have to switch to the *optical depth* to parametrize the stellar structure equations (this is the case for the *photosphere*).

The interested reader may refer to [4], §3.3, to have an idea of how the boundary conditions are chosen and linked together.

Let us now take a closer look at how the deed is done.

3.2 FITTING METHOD FOR STELLAR STRUCTURES INTEGRATION

In principle, you could use an atmosphere model to describe more or less accurately the atmosphere of a star. However, it may also happen that you *don't want* to use an atmosphere model but rather use an approximate model. In the present section, we're going to discuss a little bit of this can be done. Clearly, these rough calculation will hold, if approximately, only in small main sequence stars, which have "simpler" atmospheres.

The procedure here described follows closely the discussion by (blank, at the moment I've yet to find someone talking about this).

Consider the equation for hydrostatic equilibrium. In the atmosphere, we're going to use as independent variable the optical depth τ , so that

$$\frac{dp}{dr} = \frac{dp}{dr} \cdot \frac{d\tau}{dr} = -\frac{GM_r\rho}{r^2}$$

But recall the definition of optical depth (53) and absorption coefficient (8), so that

$$\frac{d\tau}{dr} = (-)\rho\bar{\kappa}$$

with $\bar{\kappa}$ a suitably averaged opacity coefficient. Since in the atmosphere the mass of the star is saturated $M_r = M_{\text{tot}}$ and so is the radius, the equation for hydrostatic equilibrium becomes

$$\frac{dp}{d\tau} = \frac{g}{\bar{\kappa}}$$

where $g = GM_{\text{tot}}/R_*^2$ is the surface gravity of the star. What about the other equations? The mass is saturated, so the 1st equation is irrelevant; for the same reason, also the 4th equation is irrelevant, for there is no energy production in the atmosphere¹.

So we're left with only the equation for energy transport and the EoS. Note that, in general, we cannot write an expression for radiative transfer as in (52), because we're not assured LTE to hold.

So what we're going to do is writing down an approximate relation for the temperature, that is going to depend on the optical depth and the effective temperature

$$T = T(\tau, T_{\text{eff}})$$

One possible relation is the celebrated equation for the *grey atmosphere*

$$T(\tau) = \frac{3}{4}T_{\text{eff}}^4 \left(\tau + \frac{2}{3} \right) \quad (47)$$

which assumes LTE to hold and negligible frequency-dependence on the absorption coefficient (and thus for the opacity and optical depth as well). According to this equation, the photosphere, characterized by $T = T_{\text{eff}}$, is to be found at an optical depth $\tau = 2/3$.

This approximation is sometimes used when we're interested in observing differential effects and we can be a little loose on having an accurate estimate of the effective temperature.

Another expression, that is still quite in use, is that found by [6], which is essentially a grey atmosphere modified so to include the absorption of some elements

$$T^4(\tau) = \frac{3}{4}T_{\text{eff}}^4 \left(\tau - 1.017 - 0.30e^{-2.54\tau} - 0.291e^{-30\tau} \right) \quad (48)$$

where the coefficients are the product of a fitting procedure.

It's clear that those who create hydrodynamic atmosphere models try to take into account every possible phenomenon that may occur (and be relevant) in the atmosphere, such as turbulence. Technically, especially in larger

¹ Note that although in the atmosphere there is no energy produced by nuclear reaction, we may still have to consider the contribution of energy generation by the means of gravitational collapse. However, densities are very low in the atmosphere, making ϵ_g negligible.

stars with convective envelopes, it would be sensible to consider the contribution of *turbulent pressure* to the total balance

$$p = p_{\text{gas}} + p_{\text{rad}} + p_{\text{turb}}$$

As you should know if you've attended the Fluid Dynamics or the Astrophysical Processes course, turbulence is one hell of a beast to deal with. To give you an idea of how much complex it is to even build a half-functioning model of turbulence, here's Werner Heisenberg's take on the subject²:

"When I meet God, I am going to ask him two questions: why relativity? And why turbulence? I really believe he will have an answer for the first."

If we really have to include turbulence in the picture, what's often done is invoking the Boussinesq's approximation and write a barotropic expression for the turbulent pressure

$$p_{\text{turb}} = \rho \bar{\sigma}_{\text{turb}}^2 \quad \bar{\sigma}_{\text{turb}}^2 = \beta c_s^2$$

where $\beta \lesssim 1$ is a free parameter that has to be estimated to find an accord. But is this worth the trouble? Probably not.

On top of not knowing how to deal with turbulence, we are not able, as yet, to give a precise description of the ambient temperature gradient in the atmosphere, which already enters our equations with a free parameter.

If you really want to make a meticulous job, don't bother stuffing your equations with all this stuff and get for yourselves a three-dimensional atmosphere model.

3.2.1 Starting the Integration

Our external boundary conditions are the star luminosity L_* and the effective temperature T_{eff} . Note, however, that the former doesn't help us much at this stage, since it still doesn't enter our equations in the atmosphere.

Let's assume we're starting with a very small optical depth $\tau = \tau_0 \ll 1$, so that the pressure (and the opacity) is small $p = \epsilon \ll 1$. So, assuming we're given an expression of the form $T = T(\tau, T_{\text{eff}})$, we can calculate T plugging in our values for $\tau = \tau_0$ and T_{eff} .

From the EoS, since we already knew $p = \epsilon$ and T we've just calculated, we obtain the density ρ . At this point, using all of this and the chemical composition, we can calculate the mean opacity $\bar{\kappa}$ and put everything in the equation of hydrostatic equilibrium and check if our solution is self-consistent. If not, we re-iterate the process (changing our starting values for τ and p) until the solution satisfies hydrostatic equilibrium within a given precision.

Now that we have all our variables determined on the external boundary, we can start integrating towards the inner regions. To do so, derivatives in our equations become incremental ratios and we solve mesh after mesh until we reach the base of the atmosphere (the boundary with the sub-atmosphere).

² Yes, this is the same Werner Heisenberg that laid the foundations of Quantum Mechanics.

Integrating through the sub-atmosphere, we have to raccord the values of the n -th mesh of the region with the most external one of the stellar interior. So we'll have to match p_N, ρ_N, T_N, L_N and R_N .

As anticipated, in the stellar interior we're going to be integrating with respect to the mass M_r , and we'll be using as boundary conditions at the center of the star $\rho_C, p_C, L_r \approx 0, M_r \approx 0$.

Consider the equivalent formulation for the equation of hydrostatic equilibrium

$$\frac{dp}{dM_r} = -\frac{GM_r}{4\pi r^4}$$

In a given mesh we know the value of the right hand side of the equation, meaning we also know the value of the derivative. We can therefore linearize the relation for the pressure and (moving outwards) find

$$p(M_r + \Delta M_r) = p(M_r) + \frac{dp}{dM_r} \Delta M_r$$

As mentioned above, the derivative is known from the hydrostatic equilibrium. In principle we're not assured that the variation is exactly linear, so we're going to inevitably incur into errors. What is usually done (automatically) is halving the mass step and check how the solution changes, eventually stopping when the variation gets under a given threshold.

Typically, the integration stops not in the center of the star (which would be non-sensical, computationally and physically speaking), but rather in a mesh nearby the center called *fitting mesh*. Once this special mesh is defined, we start integrating outwards from the center of the star with the aforementioned boundary conditions, stopping only when the fitting mesh is reached.

This leaves us with two sets of values at the fitting mesh, one obtained from fitting from the exterior inwards and one from the inside outwards. Clearly, there's no reason these two sets must turn out to be equal (computationally speaking), thus obtaining differences

$$X_i - X_e \neq 0$$

where X_i and X_e represent some physical property of the star as computed from, respectively, integrating outwards and inwards. Physically speaking, however, since the values are describing the same mesh, they must be coinciding.

To decide whether or not the difference is acceptable, we can set an upper bound to the maximum relative difference we're accepting

$$\frac{X_i - X_e}{X_i} \leq 10^{-4} - 10^{-3}$$

If that condition is not met, we change both the inner and outer boundary conditions and re-iterate the process, thus modifying the two sets of solution at the fitting mesh. The procedure will then be stopping when the difference between the solutions is negligible.

Moreover, we can check the dependence of our solutions from the boundary conditions we've chosen, calculating partial derivatives. For example,

we may want to check the dependence of the inner solution for the pressure on the central temperature

$$\frac{\partial p_i}{\partial T_C} \sim \frac{p_i|_{T_C+\delta T_C, p_C} - p_i|_{T_C, p_C}}{T_C}$$

so that the difference between the inner pressure solution and the external pressure solution is

$$\Delta(p_i - p_e) = \left(\frac{\partial p_i}{\partial T_C}\right) \Delta T_C + \left(\frac{\partial p_i}{\partial p_C}\right) \Delta p_C - \left(\frac{\partial p_e}{\partial L}\right) \Delta L + \left(\frac{\partial p_e}{\partial T_{\text{eff}}}\right) \Delta T_{\text{eff}}$$

This variation must be able to cancel out the difference that we originally had in the fitting mesh. We're going to write similar expressions for all our variables. Sooner or later the procedure will hopefully converge and we'll find out the right boundary solutions.

The procedure we've just described is able to solve stellar structure equations *but* is not able to follow the "fine structure" of thinner structures within the star, for example a thin layer where Hydrogen is burned. This method serves just to build a first model of the star, paving the way for more complex and accurate methods, such as the one that is going to be described in the next section.

3.3 HENYEY METHOD

As mentioned in the passing at the end of last section, it is customary to use the approximate solution found with the fitting method at time t as a test solution for the *Henyey method* [5] [3] at time $t + dt$.

The fitting method provides us with test-values for the k -th mesh; what we're going to do is checking mesh by mesh if the stellar structure equations are verified. We can expand derivatives as incremental ratios and write an expression, for each equation, with the form

$$f_{i,k} = \delta_{i,k} \neq 0$$

where $f_{i,k}$ is just a fancy way to indicate the i -th stellar equation in the k -th mesh and $\delta_{i,k}$ is the, hopefully small, result of the i -th equation in the k -th mesh. Clearly, at the first iteration, it is going to be hard that it is vanishing as we'd like it to be. In fact, in general $\delta_{i,k}$ is a function of all the physical properties of the star in the k -th mesh and of the $(k+1)$ -th mesh. We can express it as

$$\delta_{i,k} = \mathcal{F}(p_k, T_k, R_k, L_k, p_{k+1}, T_{k+1}, R_{k+1}, L_{k+1})$$

What we're going to do is slightly changing the test-values for each mesh until $\delta_{i,k}$ is found within the desired accuracy. The change in $\delta_{i,k}$ can be expressed as the sum of all the variation induced by the little changes in parameters. Said X_i one of the physical properties, we can write

$$\Delta \delta_{i,k} = \sum_j \frac{\partial \delta_{i,k}}{\partial X_{j,k}} \Delta X_{j,k} + \sum_j \frac{\partial \delta_{i,k}}{\partial X_{j,k+1}} \Delta X_{j,k+1}$$

We have have 8 unknown variables, but four of them are always in common between two adjacent meshes. Since $i = 1, \dots, 4$ and $k = 1, \dots, N - 1$, we thus have $4n - 4$ equations and $4n$ variables to determine. We're in the need of adding boundary conditions.

The most obvious conditions to add are $L_C \sim 0$, $R_C \sim 0$ in the center of the star, so that $\Delta R_1 \sim 0$, $\Delta L_1 \sim 0$, and at the base of the sub-atmosphere $p_N = f_1(L, T_e)$, $T_N = f_2(L, T_e)$, $R_N = f_3(L, T_e)$, $L_N = f_4(L, T_e)$. Given these conditions, there are plenty of (rigorous) mathematical theorems that grants that the solution we're going to find this way is, both locally and globally, *unique* (within the requested accuracy, that should go without saying).

4 | NUCLEAR REACTIONS

4.1 INTRODUCTION

5 | STELLAR EVOLUTION

5.1 INTRODUCTION

6 | STELLAR CLUSTERS

7

STANDARD CANDLES AND VARIABILITY MECHANISMS

7.1 INTRODUCTION

Part I

APPENDIX

8

APPENDIX A: RADIATIVE TRANSFER

Most of our knowledge about the Universe is based on the electromagnetic radiation that reaches us from far far away. EM radiation is obviously not the only way we can probe the Universe we live in but, in respect to neutrinos, cosmic rays or even gravitational waves, it's not a long stretch to claim it is by far the most understood.

It is most important then that an astrophysicist worthy of his (or her) name has a good grasp of the theory of radiative transfer and of its applications.

Apart from a few more key differences, I'll follow the description of radiative transfer of [4] and [9], but I won't fail to emphasize whenever I'll be doing otherwise.

Radiative transfer equation

In the presence of matter, it is not immediately obvious what changes may occur in the specific intensity as we move along a ray path. The aim of this section will be to eviscerate the matter.

Let's consider the following geometric construction

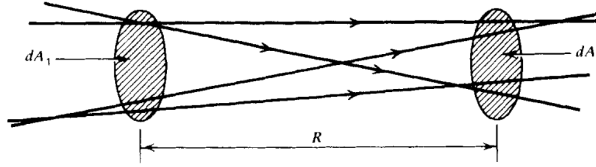


Figure 8: Geometrical construction for ray paths propagating in empty space.
Credits: G. Rybicki, A. Lightman.

It won't take a lot of effort to convince yourself that in empty space the monochromatic intensity I_ν is actually conserved. In fact, from simply writing down the definitions and imposing the conservation of energy

$$I_{\nu_2} dA_2 dt d\Omega_2 d\nu = I_{\nu_1} dA_1 dt d\Omega_1 d\nu$$

the conclusion follows observing that $dA_2 d\Omega_2 = dA_1 d\Omega_1$.

If we consider an affine parameter of the form $\vec{x} = \vec{x}_0 + \hat{k}s$, we may as well write the previous results in a more familiar fashion

$$\frac{dI_\nu}{ds} = 0 \implies (\hat{k} \cdot \nabla) I_\nu = 0 \quad (49)$$

What changes if matter is present along the ray path? Clearly it will no longer be true that $(\hat{k} \cdot \nabla) I_\nu = 0$, but we're not that far off. All that we need is some little work on both terms.

How the right hand side of the equation should change is obvious: It needs to keep track of the "creation" and "destruction" of photons in the considered volume of spacetime.

The left hand side of the equation requires a little more care. Consider infinitesimal time and space displacements along the ray path, respectively dt and $d\vec{x}$

$$\Delta E_\nu d\nu = \left(I_\nu(\vec{x} + d\vec{x}, t + dt, \hat{k}) - I_\nu(\vec{x}, t, \hat{k}) \right) dt d\Omega dA d\nu$$

Taking a first order expansion in respect to the affine parameter s along the ray path yields

$$\left(\frac{1}{c} \partial_t I_\nu + \partial_s I_\nu \right) dt ds d\Omega dA d\nu = \text{photon addition} - \text{photon removal}$$

This equation is a generalization of eq.49 for non-stationary radiative transport and in the presence of matter. It's about time we get to know what "lives" in the right hand side of the equation.

Monochromatic emission coefficient

For the moment, we'll define the *spontaneous* monochromatic emission coefficient j_ν as

$$dE_\nu d\nu = j_\nu dV dt d\Omega d\nu \quad (50)$$

which in general has a non-zero dependence on the emission direction. Sometimes the spontaneous emission coefficient is defined by the *emissivity* ϵ_ν (**please note** that often the two names are used almost interchangeably), which is the energy emitted spontaneously per unit frequency per unit time per unit mass

$$j_\nu = \frac{\epsilon_\nu \rho}{4\pi}$$

where ρ is the mass density of the emitting medium.

If we perform the decomposition $dV = dA ds$, the contribution of spontaneous emission to the specific intensity is

$$dI_\nu = j_\nu ds$$

Absorption coefficient

Similarly, we can consider the energy that is absorbed from the radiation when passing through a medium. There exists various definitions; I'll use the one we gave in class and that is incidentally the one used in [4] and [9] as well.

We define the *absorption coefficient* α_ν through the following expression

$$dI_\nu = -\alpha_\nu I_\nu ds \quad (51)$$

If we use a microscopic model, then the absorption coefficient can be understood as particles with numeric density n presenting an effective absorbing area, the *cross section* σ_ν . The coefficient α_ν can thus be rewritten in terms of

$$\alpha_\nu = n\sigma_\nu = \rho\kappa_\nu$$

where κ_ν is called the mass absorption coefficient or the *mass-weighted opacity coefficient*.

Note that in eq.51, we consider “absorption” to include both “true absorption” and stimulated emission, because both are proportional to the intensity of the incoming beam. Depending on the entity of the contribution, the α_ν coefficient may be positive or even negative, giving raise to curious phenomena.

Making full use of what we’ve just defined, we can finally present the celebrated *equation of radiative transfer* (although in the notable absence of scattering)

$$\frac{dI_\nu}{ds} = -\alpha_\nu I_\nu + j_\nu \quad (52)$$

which is actually fairly easy to solve when one of the two coefficients vanishes.

Emission only

We set $\alpha_\nu = 0$ and the equation may be solved by direct integration

$$I_\nu(s) = I_\nu(s_0) + \int_{s_0}^s j_\nu(s') ds'$$

the result is not that interesting per se.

Absorption only

This time we set $j_\nu = 0$. The equation is easily solved this time as well

$$I_\nu(s) = I_\nu(s_0) \exp\left(-\int_{s_0}^s \alpha_\nu(s') ds'\right)$$

In this case, it’s rather common to write down the equation in terms of a new variable, the *optical depth* τ_ν

$$d\tau_\nu = \alpha_\nu ds \quad (53)$$

Given this definition we’ll say that if

- $\tau_\nu \gg 1$: the medium is *optically thick or opaque*
- $\tau_\nu \ll 1$: the medium is *optically thin or transparent*

This has some crucial implications we’ll be going through in a moment.

In the stationary limit, the equation of radiative transport may be written as

$$(\hat{k} \cdot \nabla) I_\nu(\hat{k}, \vec{x}) = j_\nu(\vec{x}) - \alpha_\nu(\vec{x}) I_\nu(\hat{k}, \vec{x})$$

In terms of the *source function* $S_\nu = j_\nu / \alpha_\nu$ it becomes

$$\frac{dI_\nu}{d\tau_\nu} = -I_\nu + S_\nu \quad (54)$$

which can be integrated to yield the formal solution

$$I_\nu(\hat{k}, \tau_\nu) = I_\nu(\tau_{\nu,0}) \exp(-\tau_\nu) + \int_{\tau_{\nu,0}}^{\tau_\nu} d\tau'_\nu S_\nu \exp(-(\tau_\nu - \tau'_\nu))$$

Assume for the moment that the matter through which radiation is passing has constant properties and has no background source. Then the source function S_ν is constant and the formal equation becomes

$$I_\nu = S_\nu(1 - e^{-\tau_\nu})$$

If the medium is optically thin, then the equation is reduced to

$$I_\nu = S_\nu \tau_\nu = j_\nu L \quad (55)$$

by taking the Taylor expansion of the exponential term and calling L some typical length of the medium.

If, on the other hand, the medium is optically thick, we can neglect the exponential $e^{-\tau_\nu}$ to obtain

$$I_\nu = S_\nu \quad (56)$$

KIRCHHOFF'S LAW AND LTE

The most notable implication of eq.56 is if we consider the specific intensity coming out of a small hole on a box kept in thermodynamic equilibrium. We know that what's going to come out of there is the blackbody radiation

$$I_\nu = B_\nu(T)$$

but what if we were to put an optically thick object just behind the hole?

If the object is in thermodynamic equilibrium with the surroundings (and it *will* be, given an appropriate amount of time), then the radiation coming out of the hole will still be blackbody radiation. But eq.56 tells us that the source function will tend to be equal to the specific intensity, hence

$$S_\nu = B_\nu(T) \quad (57)$$

which actually puts a constraint on the possible values of the emission coefficient in terms of the absorption coefficient. This is exactly what is expressed in Kirchhoff's law

$$j_\nu = \alpha_\nu B_\nu \quad (58)$$

Let us briefly consider what we have just derived. Matter often tends to emit and absorb at specific frequencies corresponding to what are commonly called *spectral lines*. We would expect then both j_ν and α_ν to have peaks (or depression) around these lines. But Kirchhoff's law forces their ratio to be equal to a smooth blackbody profile.

Thus we can expect to observe two very different scenarios if the medium is optically thin rather than optically thick. In the former, the radiation emerging from the medium is essentially determined by its emission coefficient; since j_ν is expected to present peaks, so will the radiation spectrum, which will appear in spectral lines, as shown in Fig.9 and Fig.10.

On the other hand, the intensity coming out of an optically thick body is its source function, which must be equal to the blackbody function. Hence we expect the medium to emit in a continuum, like a blackbody.

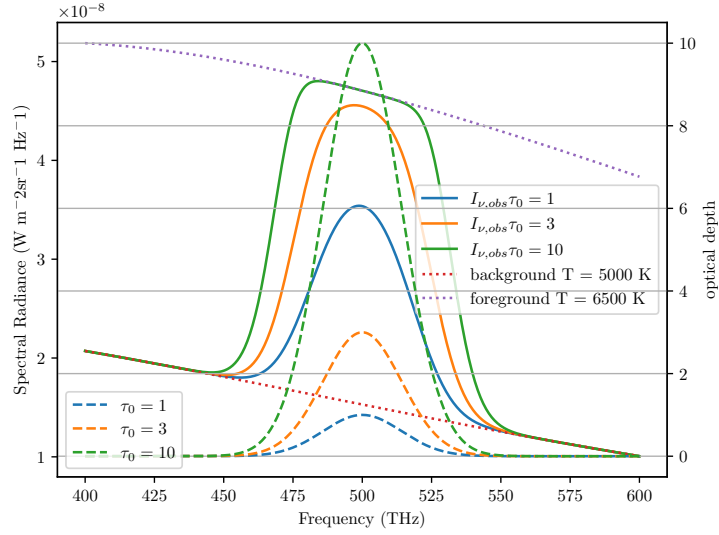


Figure 9: An example of emission features formation for different temperatures and different values of τ . Credits: Prof. Walter del Pozzo.

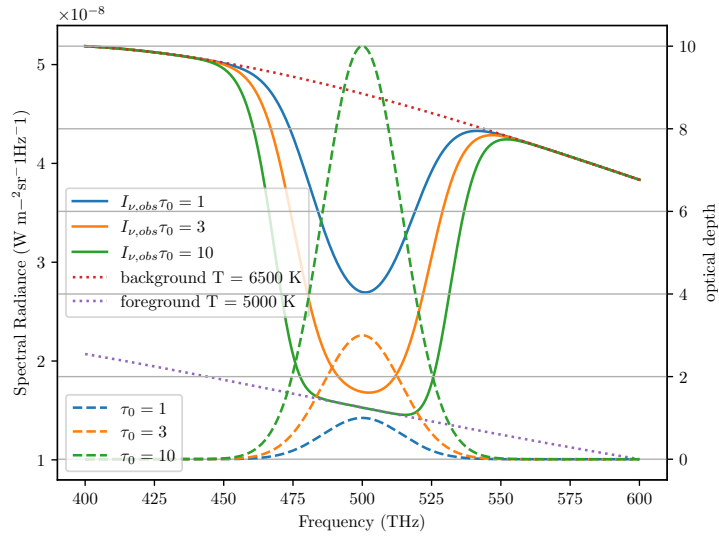


Figure 10: An example of absorption features formation for different temperatures and different values of τ . Credits: Prof. Walter del Pozzo.

All throughout this description, we've been assuming the medium to have constant properties, which has the perk of being a good approximation for many objects of interest, but still turns out to be a really poor one for many other objects. Stars, for example.

Ingenuously, we may expect stars to emit radiation like blackbodies, but they're not. Actually, stars present absorption lines, many, even, depending on the class of star. What we cannot assume in stars is them having constant properties, starting from temperature.

In fact, we could take a guess and claim that stars are in *strict* thermodynamic equilibrium. It would be a very bad guess indeed.

Local Thermodynamic Equilibrium (LTE)

Let's be honest: In a realistic situation, we *rarely* have strict thermodynamic equilibrium. If a body is in thermodynamic equilibrium, we can assume a number of important physical principles to hold, like the Maxwellian distribution

$$dn_v = 4\pi n \left(\frac{m}{2\pi kT} \right)^{3/2} v^2 \exp \left(-\frac{mv^2}{2kT} \right) dv \quad (59)$$

where n is the total number of particles per unit volume and m is the mass of each particle. Similarly, we can expect certain laws to hold, like Boltzmann's law for occupation numbers

$$\frac{n_E}{n_0} = \frac{g_E}{g_0} \exp \left(-\frac{E - E_0}{kT} \right) \quad (60)$$

and Saha's equation

$$\frac{N_{j+1}n_e}{N_j} = 2 \frac{Z_{j+1}(T)}{Z_j(T)} \left(\frac{2\pi mkT}{h^2} \right)^{3/2} \exp \left(-\frac{\chi_{j,j+1}}{kT} \right) \quad (61)$$

where n_e is the density of electrons and $\chi_{j,j+1}$ is the ionization potential. Saha's equation in particular is expected to be crucial in interpreting the effect that ionization has on the emission/absorption spectrum.

The proverbial "one-million-dollar-question" then is: When can we expect a system to be in thermodynamic equilibrium and when can we expect the previous principles to hold?

Even if the system initially does not obey the, say, Maxwellian distribution, it will eventually relax to it after undergoing some *collisions*.

Collisions are crucial in establishing thermodynamic equilibrium.

When collisions are frequent, the mean free path of particles will be small, and particles will interact more effectively. When this happens, we can expect the principles aforementioned to hold. Since we're physicists, vague sentences like "*the mean free path of particles will be small*" are destined to elicit a deep sense of unease and distress. How small does the free path have to be? One meter? Two micrometers? Below the Planck lengthscale?

When we've defined the absorption coefficient α_ν , the sharpest among my four readers total may have noticed that α_ν has the dimension of the inverse of a length. It is safe to assume that α_ν^{-1} may define some distance over which a significant fraction of the radiation would get absorbed by matter.

Such a "mean-distance" is defined in a homogeneous medium as

$$\langle \tau_\nu \rangle = \alpha_\nu l_\nu = 1$$

Thus, if l_ν is sufficiently small such that the temperature can be taken as a constant over such distance, we can safely say that the useful relations we have defined earlier still hold, although only locally.

In such a fortunate scenario, known as *Local Thermodynamic Equilibrium* (LTE), all the important laws requiring thermodynamic equilibrium are expected to hold, provided that we use the local temperature $T(\vec{x})$.

In the interiors of stars, for example, LTE will prove to be a very good approximation, that will get progressively worse as we approach the "surface" of the star.

PARALLEL PLANE APPROXIMATION

One useful approximation that may be worthwhile to dedicate some of our time to is the *plane parallel atmosphere*, that will allow us to obtain notable results for describing how radiation travels through, say, the inner regions of the stellar atmosphere.

In the following, we're going to neglect the curvature of the stellar atmosphere and assume the various thermodynamic quantities to be constant over horizontal planes.

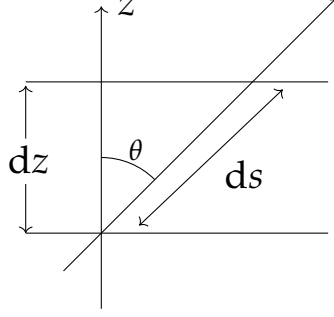


Figure 11: A ray path through a plane parallel atmosphere.

Using Fig.11 as a reference, we see that

$$ds = \frac{dz}{\cos \theta} = \frac{dz}{\mu}$$

where we used the customary notation in astrophysics $\mu = \cos \theta$.

We shall consider a scattering free, stationary situation for the equation of radiative transport (52). Hence, due to planar symmetry, we expect the specific intensity to depend only on z and μ . For the sake of the current discussion, we perform a slight modification to the definition of optical depth, so that

$$d\tau_v = -\alpha_v dz$$

This way the equation of radiative transfer may be cast in the following form

$$\mu \partial_{\tau_v} I_v(\tau_v, \mu) = I_v - S_v$$

which has a formal solution easily computed

$$I_v \exp\left(-\frac{t_v}{\mu}\right) \Big|_{\tau_{v,0}}^{\tau_v} = - \int_{\tau_{v,0}}^{\tau_v} \frac{S_v}{\mu} \exp\left(-\frac{t_v}{\mu}\right) dt_v \quad (62)$$

This is customarily solved considering two distinct intervals for μ : (I) $\mu \in [0, 1]$ and (II) $\mu \in [-1, 0]$. In case (I) we can assume the ray path to begin from a great depth inside the star, so that $\tau_{v,0} \rightarrow \infty$, while in case (II) we assume the ray to receive contributions beginning from the top of the atmosphere, where $\tau_{v,0} \approx 0$. For case (II), we're also assuming no radiation to be coming from *outside the star*¹.

Now we can assume LTE throughout the stellar atmosphere so that eq.58 is verified. The source function at some optical depth shall then be equal to

¹ Please note that this condition may be not valid at all in close binary systems.

$B_\nu(T(\tau_\nu))$. For the source function at a nearby optical depth we can simply compute a Taylor expansion around the optical depth τ_ν

$$S(t_\nu) = B_\nu(\tau_\nu) - (t_\nu - \tau_\nu) \frac{dB_\nu}{d\tau_\nu} + o(t_\nu^2)$$

We can use this to solve (62), finding for both positive and negative values of μ a very important equation

$$I_\nu(\tau_\nu, \mu) = B_\nu(\tau_\nu) + \mu \frac{dB_\nu}{d\tau_\nu} \quad (63)$$

provided the point considered is sufficiently inside the atmosphere so that $\tau_\nu \gg 1^2$. Using this simple result, we can compute the three momenta of the equation of transport

$$U_\nu = \frac{4\pi}{c} B_\nu(\tau_\nu) \quad (64)$$

$$F_\nu = \frac{4\pi}{3} \frac{dB_\nu}{d\tau_\nu} \quad (65)$$

$$P_\nu = \frac{4\pi}{3c} B_\nu(\tau_\nu) \quad (66)$$

The Grey Atmosphere

If we consider the absorption coefficient α_ν constant over all frequencies, then the atmosphere is called a "grey atmosphere". This implies that the value of the optical depth at some physical depth is constant for all frequencies. Under this assumption, we could solve

$$\mu \frac{\partial I}{\partial \tau} = I - S$$

I'll skip the explicit calculation (which is actually fairly easy for once) and present just the final result. Two more assumptions are to be made, however: The first is to assume *radiative equilibrium*, which roughly translates into requiring that there are no sources nor sinks of energy in the atmosphere, thus $\partial_\tau F = 0$; as a further simplification, we assume the *Eddington approximation* to hold everywhere in the atmosphere³, so that

$$P = \frac{1}{3} U$$

It should be evident that this last equation is verified automatically in presence of an isotropic source of radiation, also in its frequency-dependent form.

We then come to the following conclusion

$$I_{obs}(\tau = 0, \mu) = \frac{3F}{4\pi} \left(\mu + \frac{2}{3} \right) \quad (67)$$

² You can see [4], §2.4.1 for more detailed calculations.

³ I find most intriguing that Eddington's approximation essentially assumes that $T^\mu_\mu = 0$, with $T^{\mu\nu}$ the electromagnetic energy-momentum tensor if we are to treat electromagnetic radiation as a perfect fluid.

from which we deduce the equation for the *limb darkening*

$$\frac{I(0, \mu)}{I(0, 1)} = \frac{3}{5} \left(\mu + \frac{2}{3} \right)$$

which roughly translates into saying that the radiation that we observe at the surface is the one equivalent at a source function S evaluated at $\tau = 2/3$. This is known as the *Eddington-Barbier estimation*.

A somewhat more general way to solve the problem is assuming the following functional relation for the specific intensity

$$I_\nu(\tau, \mu) = a_\nu(\tau_\nu) + b_\nu(\tau_\nu)\mu$$

and compute the three momenta proper

$$J_\nu = \frac{1}{2} \int_{-1}^{+1} I_\nu d\mu = a_\nu \quad (68)$$

$$H_\nu = \frac{1}{2} \int_{-1}^{+1} I_\nu \mu d\mu = \frac{b_\nu}{3} \quad (69)$$

$$K_\nu = \frac{1}{2} \int_{-1}^{+1} I_\nu \mu^2 d\mu = \frac{a_\nu}{3} \quad (70)$$

Now we assume a stronger version of the *Eddington approximation* $K_\nu = J_\nu/3$ so that the two following expressions can be written

$$\frac{\partial H_\nu}{\partial \tau_\nu} = J_\nu - S_\nu \quad (71)$$

$$\frac{\partial K_\nu}{\partial \tau_\nu} = H_\nu = \frac{1}{3} \frac{\partial J_\nu}{\partial \tau_\nu} \quad (72)$$

The mixing of the two gives us a second order PDE that it's still (approximately) valid even in the outer regions of the stellar atmosphere.

RADIATIVE DIFFUSION APPROXIMATION

This section would probably be clearer if you take a brief detour to Chapter 3 to build some groundwork for scattering processes, but it still suits better the main subject of this chapter.

For the sake of coherence (and personal laziness) I'm going to talk about the radiative diffusion approximation right here, also because it makes use of the plane parallel approximation we just went through.

In Chapter 3 we will use random walk arguments to show that S_ν approaches B_ν at large *effective optical depths* in a homogeneous medium. Real media are seldom homogeneous, but often, as in the interiors of stars, there is a high degree of local homogeneity.

The equation of radiative transport in presence of scattering may be cast in a slightly different form

$$I_\nu = S_\nu - \frac{\mu}{\alpha_\nu + \sigma_\nu} \partial_z I_\nu$$

We shall then assume that over a distance l_* (the thermalization length) I_ν is constant and at zero-th order is $I_\nu^{(0)} = S_\nu^{(0)} = B_\nu$. Plugging this in the equation of radiative transfer gives us $I_\nu^{(1)}$ by a simple iterative procedure

$$I_\nu^{(1)} = B_\nu - \frac{\mu}{\alpha_\nu + \sigma_\nu} \partial_z B_\nu \quad (73)$$

With the simple redefining $d\tau_\nu = -(\alpha_\nu + \sigma_\nu) dz$, we can put eq.(73) in a form functionally equal to (63).

Let us now compute the flux F_ν using the above form for the intensity

$$F_\nu(z) = 2\pi \int_{-1}^{+1} I_\nu^{(1)} \mu d\mu = -\frac{4\pi}{3} \frac{\partial_z B_\nu}{\alpha_\nu + \sigma_\nu} = -\frac{4\pi}{3} \frac{\partial_T B_\nu}{\alpha_\nu + \sigma_\nu} \partial_z T$$

Recalling the result

$$\partial_T \int_0^{+\infty} B_\nu d\nu = \frac{4\sigma_{SB}T^3}{\pi}$$

we can define a *mean absorption coefficient* using the *Rosseland approximation for radiative diffusion*

$$\frac{1}{\alpha_R} := \frac{\int_0^{+\infty} \frac{1}{\alpha_\nu + \sigma_\nu} \partial_T B_\nu d\nu}{\int_0^{+\infty} \partial_T B_\nu d\nu} \quad (74)$$

If we integrate the monochromatic flux over the frequencies and make use of the Rosseland mean, we find a useful expression used in stellar structure models

$$F(z) = -\frac{16\sigma_{SB}T^3}{3\alpha_R} \partial_z T \quad (75)$$

ABOUT ME

Hi there, I'm Giacomo, sometimes known as Cael by a very small niche of people, the author of the notes you just finished reading.

I'm a Bachelor-graduate student at the University of Pisa now in the process of undertaking a major (Master degree) in Astronomy and Astrophysics at the same university. In my (meager) free time I'm an avid reader, gamer, anime-enthusiast as well as an independent author in the very process of publishing his first novel.

For those of you that may be interested I'll leave both the link to the novel's page as well to my instagram profile in the QRcodes right below.

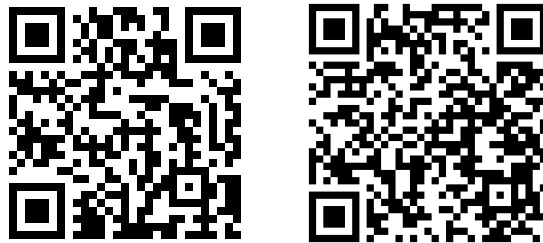


Figure 12: On the left is the link to my instagram profile, on the right the one to my novel's page (Python really has a library for anything, huh?).

Come say hi if you fancy action-fantasy stories with magic, swords, some comedy to garnish and a lot of other stuff :)

At last but not the least, I want to thank all my colleagues and fellow students that helped (and hopefully will help me again) during the drafting of this text, pointing out errors and occasions for further expansion.

If you'd like your names to be included and take your fair share of credits, feel free to contact me and I'll add your name right away in the few lines that are left of this page.

I hope my understading of the complex interplayings going on in our Universe has managed to facilitate your own understading.

If not, well... oopsie.

See you, space cowboys...

Giacomo

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